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ACCESS TO SCHOOLS

Debates on the Admission of ‘Low-Caste’ Children – 1820–1947

‘The Brahmin boys mingle with their school-mates in their various exercises and in numerous instances, give place without chagrin to their superior merit when they rise in their respective classes. ... nor do we recollect a single instance of a Brahmin youth’s having left the school in disgust because associated with soodras.’¹

Joshua Marshman 1817

Introduction

The above statement shows that social stratification in the early nineteenth century in the field of education was not rigid. William Adam, during his survey of 1837–1838, found out that in the indigenous vernacular schools of Bengal, ‘parents of good caste do not hesitate to send their children to schools conducted by teachers of an inferior caste and even of a different religion. ... this is true of the Chandal, and other low caste teachers enumerated.’² This was not peculiar to Bengal alone but existed in South India too. In the late seventeenth and early eighteenth century, a highly educated person by name Arhagappan (1660–1730) worked as a chief *dubash* or interpreter for the Danish East India Company. He knew Tamil, German, Dutch, Danish, and Portuguese, and helped the German missionaries. He was identified as a ‘person without a caste or religion,’ a missionary term that referred to Dalit communities.³ In the Madras Presidency, the early records designate them as ‘all other castes’ as they were beyond Shudra castes. From the 1830s onwards, the colonial records used the term ‘low-caste’ students to denote children from this background. The Madras government began to use the term ‘Panchama’ from the 1880s onwards. The progressive Indians started to use ‘depressed classes’ in the early twentieth century due to their depressed social and economic status. The caste categories used in this chapter indicate their status when the data were collected. In many cases, they do not correspond to the present-day status as several castes undertook social reform and moved up the social hierarchy. This chapter looks into access in indigenous and colonial schools. It attempts to analyse the government policies and activities of political leadership that led to the strong resistance to allowing low-caste children into schools.

Indigenous Schools

The indigenous education system was divided into Sanskrit and modern Indian vernaculars. The Sanskrit schools were free and the teacher had to feed and clothe the students. In the Sanskrit schools, where the Vedas and Philosophy were taught, both teachers and students were Brahmins, while other branches admitted students from non-Brahmin castes. In Bengal, with an estimated population of 100,000 Brahmins in the early nineteenth century, only about 1,000 had studied grammar which was considered basic linguistic knowledge for further advanced studies. Of these 1,000 persons, about 300 had studied Nyaya and only five or six the Vedas. The Sanskrit schools, which taught Sanskrit grammar, Literature, Ayurveda, Jotishya, Metaphysics, and Ethics, admitted boys from all castes. For instance, in Bengal, the Sanskrit schools that taught Ayurveda had teachers and students from the Baidya caste. Several Kayasthas and the Shudra castes not only studied Sanskrit but possessed Sanskrit manuscripts.⁴ The Sanskrit schools in Kerala, which taught astrology, had 78 Brahmins, 18 Vysyas, 176 Shudras, and 490 boys from 'all other castes.'⁵ In Sanskrit schools teaching Ethics, there were 22 Brahmins and 31 from 'all other castes,' and in Metaphysics, there were 34 Brahmins and 31 from 'all other castes.'⁶ In North India, there were Ahir teachers and students in some Sanskrit schools.⁷

The vernacular schools where reading, writing, and Arithmetic were taught were open to all castes. The earliest data available is for the Ratnagiri district, which was collected within a year of the establishment of the British administration. These indigenous schools were untouched by any external influences. Of the 82 Hindu teachers, 49 came from non-Brahmin castes, and out of 1,378 Hindu boys, 811 were from non-Brahmin castes.⁸ These schools were inclusive in a very modern sense. In the village Pent in Ouchitghar taluka, Baji Pant Marathe, a Brahmin taught one Brahmin, six Sonar, one Shimpi, ten Bhandari, four Sali, three Mali, six Khatri, and one Panchal boy in a shed belonging to a Teli. Similarly, in the village Palee, Amrutrao Bhagwant, a Prabhu, taught five Brahmins, six Prabhus, seven Sonars, five Kasars, four Marathas, five Shimpis, three Surekurees, one Jangam, three Jews along with seven Muslim boys in the village temple.⁹ This shows that these schools were inclusive of both caste and religion. However, there were no Dalit students in these schools.

The example of the Ratnagiri district is not peculiar or unique. Five years later, the trend was seen everywhere when the data was collected for the rest of the Bombay presidency. The Dharwar district had 138 Brahmin, 139 Lingayat, and five teachers of different castes.¹⁰ In the same district, there were 943 Brahmin, 2,092 dominant caste, and 609 artisanal caste students. The Belgaum district had 212 Brahmin, 637 dominant castes, and 186 artisanal caste students. The Ahmadabad district had 410 Brahmin, 1,772 dominant castes, and 791 artisanal caste students. Brahmin teachers were predominant in Gujarat, while in Marathi and Kannada areas, Brahmins, Prabhus, Lingayats, and artisanal castes shared the teaching profession. The landed castes like the Marathas and Kunbis were conspicuous by absence.¹¹ This was the trend in all districts of western India, but the reason for giving the examples of these districts is that they represent diverse linguistic areas.

Southern India, too, exhibited a similar trend in 1823–1824. Of the 142,369 students in Kannada, Malayalam, Oria, Tamil, and Telugu vernacular schools, 75,324 were from Shudra castes, 30,479 from Brahmin caste, 22,794 from low-caste, and 13,772 from Vysya castes. Once again, diverse linguistic districts are taken as representative samples to see the differences. In the Oria–Telugu bilingual Ganjam and Srikakulam districts, there were 808 Brahmin, 243 Vysya, 1,001 Shudra, and 886 low-caste students. The Kannada–Telugu bilingual Bellary

district had 1,185 Brahmin, 981 Vysya, 2,998 Shudra, and 1,174 low-caste students. The Telugu-speaking Nellore district had 2,466 Brahmin, 1,641 Vysya, 2,407 Shudra, and 432 low-caste students. The Tamil-speaking Tirunelveli district had 2,016 Brahmin, 2,889 Shudra, and 3,557 low-caste students. Here there were no students from Vysya castes. The Malayalam-speaking Malabar district had 2,230 Brahmin, 84 Vysya, 3,697 Shudra and 2,756 low-caste students.¹² The majority of teachers in Telugu-speaking areas were Brahmins. In contrast, in Tamil and Malayalam-speaking areas, it was Pillay, and in Kannada-speaking areas, the profession was equally shared by Brahmins and Lingayats. In all these five linguistic regions, teachers from artisanal castes existed in considerable numbers. The affluent castes like Kammas, Reddys, Mudaliyars, Chettiyars, and Nairs though present in large numbers as students did not take up the teaching profession as the earnings were meagre.¹³

The Bengal Presidency showed a much more progressive trend. Like the rest of India, non-Brahmin students dominated its Bengali and Hindi schools; there were low-caste students and teachers. The low-caste teachers taught the upper-caste students as well.¹⁴ For instance, in the village Upper Bazar in Nattore of Rajshahi district, Naba Kishore Das, a 32-year-old Kaibarta (Dalit caste), taught in a school established by Gobinda Pal, a Mahajan businessman. In the same village, Rash Chandra Sarkar, a 38-year-old Napit (barber caste), taught in a school built by Kali Prasad Sukul.¹⁵ In twin villages of Ataikula cum Kistnapur in the same district, Baul Chandra Sarkar, a 25-year-old Kaibarta, taught writing on a palm leaf in a Chandi Mantap where Brahmin priests worshipped.¹⁶ Chandal, Pasi, and other low-caste teachers were in Murshidabad, Birbhum, and Burdwan districts. Of the 66 Bengali teachers in Murshidabad, 14 were Brahmins, and the remaining 52 came from various non-Brahmin castes, including low – castes. In Birbhum, out of 407 teachers, the Brahmins constituted 86; in Burdwan, out of 626 teachers, only 107 were Brahmins. South Bihar did not have a single Brahmin teacher, and all its 284 Hindi teachers came from non-Brahmin castes. A similar trend was also visible in Tirhut or North Bihar, which had only one Brahmin out of 80 vernacular teachers. In all these districts, Kayasthas and artisanal castes dominated the teaching profession.¹⁷

The trend continued in the field of students too. In Murshidabad, out of 1,058 students, the largest group, 479 students, came from artisanal castes like Sutar, Teli, Tanti, Napit, and others. There were 181 Brahmins, 73 from lowcastes, and the rest from various non-Brahmin castes. In Birbhum, out of 6,098 students, the largest group of 2,270 came from artisanal castes, Brahmins were next with 1,853, and the rest came from numerous non-Brahmin castes, which included 527 low-caste children. In Burdwan, of 12,408 students, the most significant portion of 4,361 came from artisanal castes, followed by 3,429 Brahmins, 750 from low-castes, and the rest from a host of non-Brahmin castes. In South Bihar, of the 2,920 students, 1,466 came from artisanal castes, 256 were Brahmins, 198 from Dalit castes, and the rest from other non-Brahmin castes. In North Bihar, too, out of 574 students, 299 came from artisanal castes, 25 were Brahmins, 81 were lowcastes, and the rest were all other non-Brahmin castes.¹⁸ So, in the Bengali and Hindi areas of the Bengal Presidency, the artisanal castes formed the most significant part of students. North Bihar had more low-caste students than Brahmin students. Adam found in Burdwan district 760 boys of Dalit castes.¹⁹

In the NWP, 46.4 per cent of teachers were Kayasthas, 43.9 per cent Brahmins, 1.7 per cent Rajputs, 1.8 per cent Bania, and six per cent belonged to artisanal castes. In Agra, Aligarh, and Mathura, the Brahmin teachers were predominant; in other districts, it was the

Kayasthas. The figures for Brahmin teachers consist of Sanskrit, bilingual Hindi–Sanskrit, and Hindi schools. It is difficult to say how many Brahmin teachers taught in Hindi schools alone.²⁰ The Sanskrit teachers were called Panditji and Guruji. The Brahmin teachers in Hindi schools were called Misrji and Kayastha teachers were addressed as Lalaji and Bhayaji. The teachers from the barber caste were called Nai Pandhe.²¹ Of the 21,342 Hindu boys, 6,614 were Brahmins, 10,429 were non-Brahmin upper castes, and 4,299 were lower caste boys.²² In Mynpuri, the 66 Hindi schools were dominated by Ahirs and Keras with 12 and 30 boys each, while Jat, Sonar, Lohar, Mali, Kori (weaver), and Chamar boys were in single digit. The 76 Hindi school teachers of Shahjahanpur comprised of 60 Kayasthas, four Rajputs, four Brahmins, and seven from artisanal castes (two Kurmis, two Nais, and one each of Lohar, Ahir, and Tamboli). Out of its 248 students, 65 Kulwaras, 33 Kurmis, and 30 Sonar students formed the largest group; the rest comprised all other castes in small numbers, including two Dalit Chamar boys. In the same district, there were 33 Sanskrit schools with 212 students. Most of them were Brahmins, but there were also Baniya, Bairagi, Ahir, Halwai, Kayastha, Khatri, Gosai, and Nao Pande caste students. The only Sanskrit–Hindi bilingual school had an Ahir teacher. In the NWP, only Rajputs were absent. Butler, the British officer who collected the data, concluded that ‘the Rajputs are as usual averse to the education of their children.’²³

So, the data for Sanskrit schools show that except for Vedic schools, others had non-Brahmin teachers and students in most parts of India. In the vernacular schools, non-Brahmin castes dominated, which also included low-caste children. The only caste group absent in schools was the landed gentry, particularly the Rajputs. The reason for such an egalitarian school system was the predominance of the Vaishnava tradition of Hinduism across India. The medieval Vaishnava saints like Ramanuja, Purandara Dasa, and Kanaka Dasa in South India, Tukaram and Namdeo in Western India, and Chaitanya in Bengal disregarded caste and rejected ritualistic aspects of Hinduism. By the beginning of the nineteenth century, Bengal was predominantly Vaishnava in religion and considerably egalitarian in societal norms.²⁴ Francis Buchanan-Hamilton, an eighteenth-century ethnographer who extensively travelled in India, found the Vaishnavas among the most literate and learned in Bengal.²⁵ The Vaishnava *tols* (centres for higher learning) provided access to all castes, and most of the Vaishnava scholars themselves came from non-Brahmin caste groups.²⁶

The early missionary schools were as inclusive as indigenous vernacular schools, as 60–70 per cent of boys were from non-Brahmin castes. In these schools, the Brahmin boys freely mixed with lower castes and showed no resentment when the lower-caste boys often outperformed them. In 1817, Marshman wrote that

The Brahmin boys mingle with other school-mates in their various exercises and in numerous instances, give place without chagrin to their superior merit when they rise in their respective classes. ... nor do we recollect a single instance of a Brahmin youth having left the school in disgust because associated with soodras.²⁷

In 1818, when the Serampore College was established, its first batch consisted of 14 Christian, 19 Hindu, and four Dalit students.²⁸ The Hindu students consisting of Brahmins and other upper castes did not oppose teaching Sanskrit to Dalit students.²⁹ In 1836, the Missionary schools in Burdwan consisted of 27.5 per cent Brahmins and 15 per cent Kayasthas; in Birbhum and Murshidabad, 18 per cent were Brahmins and 13 per cent were

Kayasthas and the rest comprised of lower castes. 'There was no single instance of a Brahmin boy ever leaving the school upon a low-caste boy's admission or resented when the low-caste boys often outperformed them. Brahmin boys freely mixed with lower castes and showed no resentment.'³⁰

The Orientalist Policies in Bengal

In Bengal, the Orientalists followed twin policies from 1800 onwards. They promoted the study of *Dharmasastras*, which was exclusively in the hands of orthodox Brahmins. Though the Brahmins were 'wretchedly poor,' the Orientalists tried to project Brahmins as the leaders of the society. Knowledge of the *Dharmasastras* was needed in the civil courts to settle disputes among Hindus and administer justice. The selection of *Manu Dharmasastra* as the authentic laws of the Hindus further strengthened the hands of orthodox Brahmins. Over a period of time, the Brahmin influence would have declined with its translation into English and vernaculars. However, the intention of the Orientalists to make the orthodox Brahmins the leaders of the Hindu society had a devastating effect on the educational policies.

In the Education Minute of 1811, Governor-General Minto and H.T. Colebrooke declared that priests should be appointed as teachers to instil among the Hindus and Muslims 'a dread of the punishments denounced both in this world and in a future state.'³¹ They spent vast sums to establish Madrasas at Bhagalpur, Jaunpur, and Murshidabad. But the proposal to establish a Sanskrit college at Nadia and Tirhut was rejected by Brahmin pundits.³² After the British Parliament directed the government of India to spend 100,000 rupees annually, the Court of Directors wrote to the next Governor-General Hastings, not to spend it on modern education but honour Arabic and Sanskrit scholars to inculcate 'systems of ethics ... the duties relating to every class of the people.'³³ In the following letter, they stated that 'a seminary is urgently required' to teach Bengali Brahmins as 'they are deplorably deficient ... in Hindu literature.'³⁴ Governor-General Hastings noted that it was not 'the intention of the British government ... to lessen the obligation of religion, or to weaken the proper influence of the priesthood.' He wanted to bring 'beneficial revolution under British sway' through priests.³⁵ The Hindus rejected it, and Hastings later admitted the 'failure' of his policy.³⁶

Holt Mackenzie, the Secretary to the Bengal government, in his Education Note of 1823, insisted that religion should form the basis of education for 'improving the morals of the natives of India.' Since the Hindus did not have institutionalised religious teaching, like 'the parish schools' of England, the government decided to intervene.³⁷ The government wanted to privilege 'the men of Brahmanical birth,' who would 'exercise a powerful influence on the minds of every order of the community.'³⁸ Leading reformers of Bengal, like Rammohan Roy and Dwarkanath Tagore, and others who were Brahmins by birth rejected it. The Orientalists opposed social reform among the Hindus. H.H. Wilson, who controlled education in the 1820s, defined the term 'learned natives' as a tiny band of prospective Brahman pundits and wanted them to teach the rest of the population 'useful knowledge' that consisted of 'ancient Hindu legends and mythology.'³⁹ The Orientalists privileged the orthodox literature over the egalitarian Hindu philosophies of Upanishads and supported *sati* over social reform. They argued that the Indian vernaculars did not include 'the learning and literature of the country,' consequently rejecting thousands of vernacular-educated Brahmins and non-Brahmins of India.⁴⁰

The Orientalist Policies in the Bombay Presidency

In Bengal, the Orientalists began to officially privilege Brahmins after 43 years of British rule, while in the Bombay Presidency, the process started immediately. Thomas Best Jervis, who collected the data for Ratnagiri district, knew first-hand that the majority of teachers and students were non-Brahmins, yet declared that 'the curriculum taught in vernacular schools is altogether useless to nine-tenths of children' and recommended limiting education to Brahmins alone 'for the security of our own government'.⁴¹ The Judge of Ahmadabad recommended that only Brahmins should be appointed as teachers because. A scholar is required highly to venerate his instructor and on several occasions to prostrate himself before him, and it would therefore be very inconsistent for the son of a Brahmin to do this, to any person of inferior caste.⁴² This was not true as Brahmin students studied under non-Brahmin teachers. These British officers attributed the mode of behaviour that occasionally existed in Sanskrit schools to all vernacular schools.

Mountstuart Elphinstone, the first governor of the Bombay Presidency, supported these officers and set the tone for future education policies.⁴³ He argued that only the Brahmins and elite Marathas should be encouraged to take up education; since the Marathas did not send their 'wards' (sons) to schools, education should be limited to Brahmins alone and declared that only 'pantojees (Brahmin teachers) and maulvis' should be appointed as teachers.⁴⁴ He declared that 'the question is not whether we are to encourage Brahmin learning or European learning, but whether we are to encourage Brahmin learning or none at all.'⁴⁵ In 1822, under the policy of 'caste autonomy,' he drew up rules for the caste panchayats to settle disputes regarding religion, marriage, and property.⁴⁶

During 1820–1821, Thomas Best Jervis established the first teacher training institution in Ratnagiri to train Brahmin teachers. He admitted the first batch of 25 Brahmin students aged 18–24 to teach in government Marathi schools.⁴⁷ Jervis brought in sweeping changes. All teachers in the indigenous Marathi schools of Ratnagiri, Chiplun, and Nandure were non-Brahmins in 1820, and within three years, the six government Marathi schools established in these places had only Brahmin teachers.⁴⁸ Elphinstone encouraged Jervis's brother George Jervis to establish the Native Education Society-NES to prepare textbooks and train Brahmin teachers.⁴⁹ For the next 32 years, George Jervis controlled every aspect of education in the Bombay Presidency.⁵⁰

Elphinstone and Jervis established an English school in Bombay for the landed gentry in 1824. The admission was limited to the 'higher orders' of the society, and 'to prevent a mixture of ranks,' the NES screened every application.⁵¹ To Elphinstone, except for the landed gentry, virtually every Indian, irrespective of caste status, including poor Brahmins, belonged to 'lower orders' of the society.⁵² In spite of Elphinstone's open appeal, no landed Brahmin or a Maratha came forward to admit his son. Jervis lamented admitting 21 Brahmin, 33 non-Brahmin (24 Prabhu, four Shimpee, four Bania, and one Sonar), and four Parsi boys 'from the miserable background.'⁵³ In 1825, Elphinstone publicly announced that 'Brahmins and respectable Hindu castes and Muslims would be recruited as teachers in government schools. The selected candidates would be provided cooks of their own caste.'⁵⁴ He was aghast after seeing 24 Brahmin boys who had passed the examination to start the teacher training programme as they all came from impoverished backgrounds.⁵⁵ They were rejected. Jervis chose 25 Marathi and 16 Gujarati Brahmins from affluent backgrounds to train them in his NES as schoolmasters.⁵⁶ They were sent across the presidency to the newly

established government schools.⁵⁷ Francis Warden, the Chief Secretary of the Presidency, consistently opposed these policies.⁵⁸ In the course of time, a few Maratha and Parsi boys did join NES; yet, this remained the pattern of selecting candidates for teacher training until the death of Jervis in 1852. During this time, the caste composition of students changed drastically. In the Ratnagiri district in 1820, 'there were 179 Prabhu and 152 Maratha students out of 418 upper-caste students. By 1842, the number of Maratha students came down to 123 and Prabhu to a meagre 6 in the government schools. Similarly, in 1820, the 393 students from artisanal castes consisted of 92 Sonar, 72 Kasar, and 44 Shimpi, and this came down to 6, 7 and 5, respectively; for the Bhandari caste, the decline was marginal, from 75 to 69. The other artisanal castes like Mali, Teli, Sutar, and Dhanger disappeared from the list of students.'⁵⁹

Frustrated by Elphinstone's refusal to support modern education, in 1827, the people of the Bombay Presidency collected 226,172 rupees to establish a college 'to teach English language and the arts and sciences of Europe.'⁶⁰ Jervis tactfully joined the group to stall the process; when he could no longer do so, he named the institution Elphinstone College. The college was finally started in 1835 when Robert Grant became the governor.⁶¹ Bal Gangadhar Shastri, the Brahmin headmaster and assistant professor, along with progressive British professors, maintained an inclusive admission policy. During 1835–1840, of the number of those who passed out of Elphinstone institution, 47 per cent were Prabhus, 24 per cent from artisanal castes, followed by Parsis 18 per cent, Brahmin 11 per cent, and eight per cent Shanavis.⁶² In 1840, its 259 Hindu students comprised 72 Brahmins, 88 Prabhus, two Marathas, 16 Baniyas, 12 Khatris and 69 from artisanal castes.⁶³ Most of them were from poor backgrounds.

Robert Grant died in 1838, and Orientalist James Farish became the acting governor. In 1839, Farish and Jervis called 'the college a failure' and decided that there should be no direct admission but done only 'through the nomination of the government and the subscribers, according to the amount of subscription.'⁶⁴ This was unsuccessful, as no landed gentry came forward to admit their sons. So on 30 April 1840, the college was downgraded to a vernacular school under the name 'Elphinstone Native Education Institution.'⁶⁵ Fortunately, Thomas Erskine Perry came to Bombay as a judge of the High Court in 1841. He opposed the move and rescued Elphinstone College from the clutches of Jervis and Farish. While Jervis argued that Indians 'were incapable of understanding Western knowledge,'⁶⁶ Perry defended the intelligence of Indian students. He organised an essay competition which was won by Narayan Bhai, who belonged to Kasar or a coppersmith caste, one of the artisanal castes.⁶⁷ The essay has been reproduced as Chapter 14 in this book.

Except for the interventions by Francis Warden and Erskine Perry, which were sometimes effective and other times less so, George Jervis and his Orientalist associates controlled the education of the Bombay Presidency from 1818 to 1851. From the 1860s onwards, the Payment by Result system was introduced in primary schools, where the teacher's salary was directly linked to the number of passes each year. This further made the teachers admit students from literate backgrounds.⁶⁸

The Orientalists in the Madras Presidency

In the Madras Presidency, the Orientalists played a different game. The Orientalist Francis Whyte Ellis opposed the existing grammarians of South Indian languages as they believed that Sanskrit was the mother of these languages. He rejected the Tamil Grammar manuscript

of Subbaraya Mutaliyar. Ellis insisted that Tamil and other South Indian languages had no connection to Sanskrit and belonged to a distinct family of languages. He got the new grammar texts written under his direction in all four languages to provide a separate 'Dravidian' entity to these languages.⁶⁹ He laid the foundation for the idea that the Sanskrit language and Brahmins were alien outsiders. Having done this, one naturally expects Ellis to empower non-Brahmins through government patronage. But he did the opposite. On 1 May 1812, Ellis established the College of Fort St. George in Madras to train the 'Brahmins and Muhamadans' to work as Pundits and Kazis for the courts. Ellis was almost single-handedly responsible for the conception of the college, its curriculum, and its purpose.⁷⁰ 'The Additional Rules for the College of Fort St. George' clearly stated that 'Brahmins and Muslims are the only categories to be considered for government appointments ... Any Brahmin and Muhamadan who has not studied in this college but passes the annual examination should also be considered for appointments.'⁷¹ On the one hand, Ellis and the Orientalists designated Brahmins as 'alien outsiders' and, on the other hand, reserved admission to college and government jobs to Brahmins alone. The Orientalists were successful in creating a separate Dravidian entity but failed to get a sufficient number of Brahmins to accept patronage. Moreover, they could not limit government appointments to Brahmins until the death of Governor Thomas Munro in 1827, who opposed giving the exclusive right to any one caste and kept the jobs open to all.⁷²

Munro wanted to establish 300 primary schools called Tahsildari Schools and 40 secondary schools called Collectorate Schools to empower all sections of the society. He managed to establish 81 Tahsildari and 20 Collectorate schools before his death. The caste-wise list of some of the schools shows their inclusive nature. The Tahsildari School at Purusawalkam had 10 Christian and 21 Shudra students. The Madras Tahsildari School had 2 Modali, one Maratha, and 30 Shudra students. In the Royapeta School, all 42 students were Shudras. The Telugu school at Pettah had 13 Brahmin, 12 Shudra, six Modali, four Maratha, and three Komati children.⁷³ It shows that Tamil Brahmins were not sending their sons to government schools in the 1830s. After Munro's death, the Madras government informed the Court of Directors that Brahmins alone should be appointed as teachers as

The Hindoo religion attaches so much importance between a young Brahmin and his guru or spiritual teacher, the person from whom he learns to read and explain the Vedas and Shastras; a connection, the sole object of which is to qualify him for the priestly function, and for that of an expounder of the law.⁷⁴

This was true for some of the Sanskrit schools, and this model was applied to Tamil schools where most teachers were non-Brahmins.

In 1833, Orientalist Michael John Rowlandson, an Arabic and Persian scholar and the Secretary to the Board of the College and Public Instruction, reported that the Indian teachers at the College of Fort St. George's vernacular section opposed the admission of a Dalit student.⁷⁵ The vernacular faculty consisted of Tandavaraya Mutaliar (upper caste), Vishaka Perumal Aiyar, Mahalinga Aiyar, (Brahmins), and Muthusami Pillai (Tamil Catholic). He used this one incident as proof that the Hindus generally opposed the entry of low-caste students. Rowlandson regretted that Munro's schools were filled with 'poor and lower classes,' so the respectable classes 'evinced a natural repugnance to send their children to them.'⁷⁶ He actively recommended closing down all of them. The Governor of Madras, John Elphinstone, the nephew of Mountstuart Elphinstone, closed them on 18 May 1836.

People opposed, and a petition drafted by Gazulu Lakshminarasu Chetty, C. Narayanaswami Naidu, and C. Srinivasa Pillay and signed by 70,000 persons demanded reopening of these schools.⁷⁷ The government rejected Indian opinion. From 1839, the Orientalists called the College of Fort St. George, as the Madras University and unsuccessfully tried to encourage Tamil Brahmins to enter it.⁷⁸

Macaulay and the Orientalists Debate on Access to Schools

Macaulay and the Orientalist debate on the medium of instruction is well known. However, his opposition to their admission policy is an unexplored area. Even before coming to India, Macaulay had fought for Jewish emancipation by giving them equal educational and employment opportunities in England. For India, he advocated 'judicial reforms to prevent the British officers from treating all the native population as *parias*.'⁷⁹ Macaulay wanted Indians to compete with the British for positions in the government and become members of the Governor-General's Executive Council and members of the British Parliament.⁸⁰ While getting the Charter Act passed in 1833, Macaulay and his supporters like Charles and Robert Grant inserted a radical clause that 'no person, by reason of his birth, creed, or colour, should be disqualified from holding any office in the service of the East India Company.'⁸¹

In order to accomplish this, Macaulay established a series of modern schools at Ajmer, Azamgarh, Bareilly, Dacca, Farukabad, Ghazipur, Gorakhpur, Jaunpur, and Jabalpur and raised the standard of existing local schools at Bhagalpur, Meerut, and Sagar.⁸² He was the first to talk of the educational backwardness of rural hinterland in general and Bihar in particular. The first batch of his Patna High School students consisted of 11 Brahmins, one Rajput, ten Khattris, 38 Kayasthas, ten Baniyas, two Goalas, two Kurmis, five native Christians, and 33 Muslims.⁸³ Such inclusive schools were opposed by the Orientalists, who wanted to limit education to the upper classes of upper castes. Macaulay insisted on admitting all boys irrespective of caste or class by stating that 'our schools should be open to all' and supported the admission of the poor and lower-caste boys. He also opposed the Orientalist's decision to divide 'the Banaras College classes into rich and poor' or to provide 'chairs for boys of rank in the Delhi College.'⁸⁴

Macaulay vehemently opposed all-European Agra College Committee when it seated the lone Dalit Christian boy Balamokund separately in the classroom because of his low caste status. He insisted that 'the general rule ought to be that all classes should be treated alike and intermingle freely.'⁸⁵ The Committee also denied Balmokund, one of the four toppers of his class, the first prize in an essay competition because of his 'low birth.'⁸⁶ Macaulay opposed it and asked the essays to be sent to him for grading. He called Balmokund's essay better than the other two essays.⁸⁷ The Agra College Committee refused to reconsider its decision. It also recommended 14 Brahmin students for various positions in the administration.⁸⁸ Macaulay went ahead and appointed Balmokund as a librarian. Barkley Duncan, the Secretary to the College Committee, opposed it by arguing that 'the better class of natives' should be appointed for posts.⁸⁹ Macaulay stood up for inclusive classrooms and equal access to schools and job opportunities.

The departure of Macaulay in January 1838 gave a free hand to the Orientalists and the British elites to continue their exclusivist policies. Within a month, they downgraded the Patna High School to something lower than a vernacular primary school.⁹⁰ But the school survived as Charles Hay Cameron, the Scottish legal expert who succeeded Macaulay as a

Law member, protected it. To prevent the repeat of such incidences in particular and the spread of radical ideas of Bengal in general, a separate NWP was created in 1843. Its Lieutenant-Governor George Russell Clerk began the process of closing down Macaulay's schools with the argument that 'the Native Gentry do not send their sons for education' and all students were from 'lower rank.' The Ajmer school had 170 poor students out of 171 students! So Clerk closed it down in 1843.⁹¹ His successor, James Thomason, who administered the NWP with an iron fist till 1851, opposed educating the 'pupils from the miserable background.' He directly closed Macaulay's schools and introduced compulsory fees in others, which had a devastating effect. For instance, the strength of Sagar High School came down from 215 to 39 within a month of introducing compulsory fees. Later, Thomason used this to argue that the schools were unpopular as they had so few students.⁹²

Debates on the Admission of Dalit Children 1850–1882

With the proactive education policy followed by Charles Hay Cameron and J.E.D. Bethune in Bengal, Thomas Erskine Perry in Bombay in the 1840s, and Henry Pottinger in Madras in 1850, the British elites felt the need to reassert their exclusivist policies once again. The Orientalists had reached twilight in these presidencies while they were still going strong in the NWP and Punjab. The Governor of Bombay, Falkland, told the education department that 'the strict limitation' should be introduced and higher education should be limited to 'the wealthy, who can afford to pay for it, and to youths of unusual intelligence.'⁹³ The Court of Directors also insisted on limiting education to 'the upper classes ... the land owners and Jagirdars, Brahmins, and other higher castes that live by the pen, such as Prabhus and Shenavis in Bombay.' The Board of Education replied that 'the attempts of Elphinstone and his successors to bolster up a landed aristocracy have lamentably failed,' as these classes lived in 'vain pomp and extravagance' and were not inclined to take up education.⁹⁴ The department did not favour extending education to Vysya or the business community as they 'did not have any influence in the society.' It stated that the only influential caste was Brahmins, who were 'for the most part wretchedly poor, and in many parts of India the term "Brahmin" is synonymous with "beggar."⁹⁵ The officials stated that if the 'beggarly Brahmins' are allowed to enter higher education, 'what is there to prevent all the despised castes like the Dhers and Mahars from flocking in numbers.'⁹⁶ This shows that they put poor Brahmins and Dalits in the same category. They compared the situation to

The feelings that would be roused in England where the head of the House of Percy or Howard allying himself with a butcher's daughter, however beautiful, accomplished, or wealthy. The social peculiarities on these subjects lie wholly beyond the just scope of government interference.⁹⁷

During 1853–1855, the officials threw bureaucratic hurdles in the way of Moro Vithathal Valavekar's application for funds for Phule's schools in Poona. Valavekar, the Brahmin classmate and friend of Jotirao Phule, had written on behalf of the Society for Promoting Education among Mahars and Mangs. This society, established by Phule, had boys' and girls' schools for low-caste children.⁹⁸

In 1856, the government confronted a direct challenge to its admission policy. On 2 June, Erloo, son of Narayan, an 11-year-old boy of Mahar caste, applied for admission to the Government Marathi School at Dharwar. The Brahmin headmaster, trained in the NES

of George Jervis, refused admission on account of his caste. Erloo and his father did not remain silent. They appealed to the higher authorities.⁹⁹ The DPI, C.J. Erskine, instead of supporting the admission of Erloo, pointed out to Phule's school 'a low-caste school in Poona which is taught by Brahmins ... the low-caste boys themselves feel much at ease under this arrangement' and suggested similar experiments.¹⁰⁰ The Governor of Bombay, John Elphinstone, admitted that 'the petitioner had reason and justice on his side,' but 'to interfere with the prejudices of ages for the sake of one or few individuals would probably do great damage to the cause of education.'¹⁰¹ The government informed the petitioner that they could not interfere on his behalf at present.¹⁰²

The Court of Directors, when they came to know of it, directed that even if the upper caste children were withdrawn, the government schools must always be open to all, and those who opposed the admission of low caste children could set up their schools.¹⁰³ The DPI of Bombay E.I. Howard agreed that 'as a general principle, the government schools should be open to all.' However, he preferred 'to confine education to natives of good caste and superior classes.' Howard argued that as the government had 'prohibited Europeans and half-castes (Eurasians) from entering government schools,' how it could allow 'the presence of pupils supposed to be of abject origin and regarded with abhorrence by the more favoured castes.' Howard stressed that

The low-caste boys, as a general rule, are dirty and offensive in their persons. It would evidently not be fair to other children to compel them to receive such a fellow pupil by their side. It would be like intruding a chimney-sweep or crossing-sweeper upon a class of clean well-dressed boys in an English national school. The effect would be to drive away those who are most able to profit from education for the benefit of those who are least able.¹⁰⁴

Howard concluded the discussion by stating that 'all who wish to have exclusive schools, from whatever motives, can at once command the aid of the state towards their support' through a grant-in-aid system. When these discussions were taking place, a reference was made to a government school at Kunhur in Khandesh, where the Brahmin master and parents of 60 upper-caste children did not oppose the admission of low-caste children.¹⁰⁵

Often, the attitude of the officer in charge mattered most in such cases. In the Madras Presidency, the DPI Alexander Arbuthnot did not yield to the pressure when a few upper castes opposed the entry of low-caste children into the Rajahmundry Government High School. The other three schools, Kumbakonam, Bellary, and Calicut, did not face hostility to such admissions.¹⁰⁶ In Bengal, there was 'a varying level of social feelings, certain castes being admitted without any offence in some places, while the same castes were opposed in other places.' The Lieutenant Governor of Bengal, Frederick James Halliday, stated that 'there is a general tendency towards relaxation of prejudices. ... by the educated natives attached to the education department.' He called it 'a successful method.'¹⁰⁷ The government reiterated that 'a boy from low-caste would not have been refused admission in any government school in Bengal.'¹⁰⁸ After all these discussions, the government left admission to individual headmasters and the officials of the provincial education departments. So, if the headmaster and the officers were progressive, the admission was straightforward and non-controversial, as in the case of the Madras Presidency, where several low-caste and Native Christian boys were in schools and colleges by the end of the nineteenth century.¹⁰⁹ Howell reported in 1866 that 'the very best village school in the Jubbulpore district, with

an attendance of over 50 boys, has a Mahar teacher.¹¹⁰ In 1879, Jagannath Shankarseth, Elphinstone, and Chandan Wadi schools in Bombay had boys from low castes. The Brahmin headmaster of the Elphinstone high school, Keskar, stated that 'the Elphinstone high school alone had educated 30 boys' and boys of higher castes mixed freely with them. Keskar sent the list of 27 former students with their names who had become engineers, doctors, clerks, and merchants. Keskar opposed removing Dalit students from schools.¹¹¹

However, if the headmaster or teachers opposed it and the officials supported the admission, it led to considerable controversy. In 1868, the headmaster of an Anglo-Marathi High School at Chanda in the Central Provinces opposed the entry of a Dalit (Dhed) boy. Of the 47 boys in the school, 26 boys from Brahmin, upper, and artisanal castes left. The remaining 21 boys consisting of eight Brahmin and 13 non-Brahmin boys remained. The Chief Commissioner supported the admission of the Dalit boys, and the school continued to function even with reduced strength.¹¹² In 1869, Edulji Jamsetji, the Parsi Headmaster of the Anglo-Marathi High School at Khamgaon, who was trained at Jarvis's NES School, refused to admit a Dalit (Dhed) boy named Mukunda. Woodhouse, the Assistant Commissioner, directed the headmaster to admit the boy, to which he complied. Within a month, the school's strength came down from 118 to 68 as both Brahmin and non-Brahmin parents withdrew their boys. The DPI of Berar Sinclair refused to enforce the admission as it was not just Brahmins, but several castes like Sonars, Telies, Wanis, Tamolis, and Kunbis too opposed it.¹¹³ Woodhouse insisted that 'the Dhed boys should be admitted to the school even if few boys of upper caste are withdrawn... as ultimately self-interest will very soon overcome such prejudices.'¹¹⁴ Sinclair consulted Peile, the DPI of Bombay, who advised him to send them to 'the school for Mahars and Mangs at Ahmadnagar attended by 80 boys.' The same year, the Government High School at Akola refused admission to two Dalit boys. DPI argued that 'people will gradually give up their prejudice and ordered the admission of all boys irrespective of their caste.'¹¹⁵

In the meantime, a petition dated 28 July 1869 signed by 46 people from Brahmin and non-Brahmin castes was sent to the DPI. It argued that

The admission of Dhed and Mahar children into government school is against the policy of religious neutrality assured by the Queen's Proclamation. Allowing our children to mix with Dhed boys is a violation of our religion, and we should be provided with separate schools.¹¹⁶

Next day, on 29 July, the Deputy Commissioner and the Assistant Commissioner visited the school and found that 'the petitioners were encouraged by a schoolmaster.' Both the officials argued that 'the government should not give way to such silly prejudice, and recommended to remove the master.' The concerned master submitted, through Headmaster Edalji Jamsetji, a statement that he was 'not opposed to the admission of Dhed boys.'¹¹⁷ The Resident at Hyderabad, Saunders supported these two officials by stating that 'Brahmins and out-castes are seen standing side by side in the ranks of the regiments of the Bombay Army. Suggested firmness, tempered with patience and reconciliation as well as self-interest, must have had an effect on it.'¹¹⁸ He gave the example of 'schools in Kamptee, Raipur, Belaspore and Bhandara where Brahmin, Mahar, and Dhed boys studied together.'¹¹⁹ In the Central Provinces, the number of Dalit students went up from 18 in 1872 to 602 in 1874, 'in several schools in every district without objection being raised.' The report praised 'all

Table 3.1 Increase in the number of Dalit students in the Central Provinces 1881–1885

<i>District</i>	<i>1881</i>	<i>1885</i>
Akola	122	324
Buldana	87	127
Basim	29	81
Amraoti	102	171
Wun	35	63
Ellichpur	73	132
Total	448	903

Source: Education Proceedings 1888, 816.

Deputy Educational Inspectors and several masters have been very successful in gaining Dhed pupils, owing to their progressive mindedness, good sense and tact.¹²⁰ By the end of the century, the Central Province was far ahead of other provinces (Table 3.1) where ‘every schoolmaster admits as many low-caste children as possible.’ It also had special schools for Dalit children.¹²¹

In 1870, the government of India admitted that ‘prior to 1854, the education system in India was directed almost exclusively to the higher classes. The Despatch of 1854 turned the attention of the government away from those classes who were able to help themselves and direct it on to those that were not.’¹²²

Syed Ahmad Khan’s Opinion on the Debate in the Central Provinces

While the debate was going on among the British officials in the Central Provinces, Syed Ahmad Khan wrote to the government that in Chanda, ‘the Deputy Commissioner issued an official announcement (*rubkar*)’ to admit Dhed children and ‘the respectable Hindus were alarmed and said amongst themselves that it was the first step towards injuring their faith.’ He also stated that, the government wanted to carry these Dalit children for admission in ‘a procession on an elephant ... all the musicians of the town would walk before the procession playing their instruments,’ accompanied by ‘the District Inspector, the Deputy Commissioner ... the Assistant Commissioner, officers of the Court’ and ‘when the procession should reach the high school all the teachers of that institution should come out to receive them and to escort them in.’¹²³

Syed Ahmad Khan stated that ‘when the people came to hear of this, they at once got into carriages the very day and retired to distinct towns and villages. Nor a single boy was left in Chanda High School.’¹²⁴ He used this episode as a justification for the educational backwardness of Muslims. In the same letter, he argued that respectable Muslims do not send their sons to government schools because of such support to low-caste education and the presence of low-caste children.¹²⁵ After receiving a complaint from Syed Ahmad Khan, the government of India on 24 May 1875 approved the establishment of the Muhammadan Anglo-Oriental College at Aligarh for the ‘students from a class whose descent and ancestral position are calculated to popularise English education among the higher classes of the Mahomedan community.’¹²⁶

The Early Leaders on Access to Schools 1840–1880

The opposition of Syed Ahmad Khan was not unique; admission of children from low and artisanal castes began with the state's support of indigenous vernacular schools. For instance, in 1838, William Adam found no opposition to the presence of Dalit children in indigenous schools, and the upper-caste students studied under low-caste teachers. In November 1839, Governor-General Auckland decided to financially support indigenous schools. Radhakanta Deb, a conservative non-Brahmin leader and a member of the Governor-General's Executive Council, declared

Nothing should be guarded more carefully than the insensible introduction of education. Education would wean the youth from the plough, the axe, and the loom to render them ambitious only for the clerkship for which the host would besiege the government and mercantile offices, and the majority, being disappointed, would be unable to return to their trade and would necessarily turn vagabonds.¹²⁷

The government found that the children of the artisanal castes (carpenters, iron smiths, potters, and weavers) were 'as regular as Brahmin and Kayastha students. However, (Dalit castes like) Jelliah, Malla, Tior, Bagdi, Dom, and Mehter cannot afford to send their children to schools as they were employed in tending cattle and other light labour.'¹²⁸ In order to rectify this defect, the government wanted to introduce mass education by establishing primary schools in every village. Peary Mohan Mukherjee (1840–1923), a member of the Governor-General's Executive Council, opposed the government initiative to expand primary education. He argued,

Even in England, a copy of Shakespeare or Milton is not placed in the hands of all boys. ... In England, the system of education recognises the actual wants of society and does not disturb its harmony. They alone receive a liberal education who intends to take part in the administration of the country or to enter the ranks of her civil or military service, or to become a member of one of the learned professions. ... In this country, however, the condition of no boy is deemed too low or his natural parts too unpromising, but he is expected someday to adorn the Bench of the High Court or to assist the Viceroy in the deliberation of His Excellency's Council.¹²⁹

He further argued that the government should aim to make the masses into useful members of the society like 'servants, shepherds, apprentices and not scholars' as 'the educated mock at all distinctions of caste, wealth and lineage which had enthralled them for centuries.'¹³⁰ Mukherjee regretted that the affluent and the landed gentry in India did not take up education. 'Education has no charm for the rich born with a golden spoon, who look upon it in open scorn as a thing by which humbler people get their bread.' He demanded a separate Rajkumar College (college for princes) for the landed gentry in Bengal.¹³¹

The Indian Education Commission 1882: Reactionaries on Access

Both progressive reformers and reactionaries testified before the Indian Education Commission. The progressive Indians argued that education was necessary for nation-building and undermining the caste system. This was opposed by the reactionaries. Rajendralal Mitra (1822–1901), an Indian Orientalist and a leading non-Brahmin Sanskrit scholar, told the Commission that

‘certain it is that a fisherman’s son who keeps himself all day in a school-room instead of wallowing in water, does not get the best training for the amphibious character of his family calling.’¹³² Mitra emphatically stated ‘a lad of 8–10 is more profitably employed in tending cattle than in grinding alphabet.’ He opposed the admission of low-castes like ‘Mehters, Chandals and Bagdis.’¹³³ He also opposed the entry of poor children. Mitra argued,

It being the duty of government is to provide for protection and justice, it devises means for all classes of people, without reference to the rich or or the poor. ... If it be the duty of Government to provide for education, it is clearly its duty to provide for education, all classes of its subjects, according to their respective wants. Even as the father of a family provides milk for infants and solid meat for grown-up boys, so should the government give elementary education to those who cannot receive and utilise anything better and high education to those who are fit for it. It should be borne in mind, too, that the contributions made to the revenue by the rich are much more substantial than those drawn from the poor, and therefore the rich have a stronger claim on the consideration of the government.¹³⁴

Mitra opposed the fee concession given to poor students.

The imperative duty of government leaves no room for unequal charges for the same commodity. ... As trustee of the revenue contributed by the people, the government is bound to disburse the same. I cannot conceive how it can say, with any show of justice, that the son of a rich man shall pay double or treble the amount paid by a poor student in the same class. Wealth is no crime, and there should be no penalty or fine attached to the condition of being wealthy.¹³⁵

So, as early as 1881, Indian leaders began to view education as a commodity. The elites who were indifferent to low-caste teachers and students in indigenous schools in 1838 had changed within four decades to view education as a commodity that should be available to the elites alone.

Syed Ameer Ali (1849–1928), a member of the Governor-General’s Executive Council, opposed giving modern education to lower-class Muslims. Ameer Ali was an influential Muslim community leader who traced his lineage to Prophet Muhammad through his daughter Fatima. His grandfather was the commander of the Khurasani contingent in Nadir Shah’s army that invaded India in 1738–1740.¹³⁶ He argued that

As regards the educational requirements of the Muhammadans in these provinces (Bengal, Bihar and Orissa), I do not think the government is called upon to undertake any heavy outlay to carry out its benevolent intentions for promoting mass education, as far as the Musalmans are concerned. ... The Maktabas and the petty Madrasas attached to the various mosques all over Bengal and Bihar should be utilised for the purpose of imparting elementary education to the lower classes of Musalmans. Here is the nucleus of the most effective machinery for giving primary education to the Muhammadans.¹³⁷

Ameer Ali lamented that in Bhagalpur Zilla School, only nine of the 120 Muslim students came from the upper classes.¹³⁸

In the Madras Presidency, Ansur-U-Din, a Magistrate of Madras, admitted that the upper castes were 'contemptuous' towards the education of the lower castes, yet stated that 'the low born castes like Chakliar, Coraver, Vudders, Yanadies hold aloof from education.'¹³⁹ V. Krishnama Chariar, Curator and Registrar of Books and a trusty of the Pachiappa's Educational Institutions, called for a separate curriculum for the children of peasant and artisan castes like

Simple lessons on field and garden operations and implements, accounts and dealings in money to show the impropriety of borrowing and a degrading state of dependence on money lenders and the like would be valuable. The present course of study and class books for what is called primary schools are better adapted to prepare boys for secondary education than to the needs of the rural schools preparing boys for the work of life.¹⁴⁰

Chariar admitted that Dalit children (Oddars, Upparavas, Koravas, and Pariahs) were 'not allowed on account of their habits, which are not congenial to mingle with the more intelligent classes of the Hindu population like Brahmins, Vysyas, Vellalas, artisans and others.'¹⁴¹ The Triplicane Literary Society proposed 'separate schools with a special curriculum for artisans, toddy tappers, and pariahs.'¹⁴² The Madras Native Association praised 'the existing education system' but asked the government to make 'the village schoolmaster part and parcel of the village institution' and reduce the curriculum to peasant children.¹⁴³

In Punjab, Pundit Amarnath reported that 'Chamars (Dalits) are not allowed into schools.'¹⁴⁴ Sardar Kanwar Bikram Singh reported that 'the wealthy classes do not wish to send their children as they have to associate with low-class children ... they may get spoilt.'¹⁴⁵ The memorial of the Delhi Literary Society, established in 1865 by G.W Hamilton and W. Coldstream, stated that lowcastes like Bhangis, Chamars, Dhobis, Khatiks, Dhanaks, and Butchers were excluded from education because

The sons of the superior and the middle classes would never condescend to sit near boys coming from these classes, whose very approach or contact is despised ... There are several cases on record of attempts to admit Chamar boys in schools, the result of which was that benches were left empty and the schools deserted ... The idea of the difference in position and rank is instructive in every race and creed, and for a century at least, there is not the remotest hope of its losing ground or vanishing before the light of advancing education.¹⁴⁶

The Sat Sabha of Lahore stated that 'the government schools admit students from sweepers, Khanjars, or Chamars, (Dalit) castes which kept back respectable men from sending their sons to such schools, where, in addition, to want of moral education, they are likely to imbibe the habits and character of low men.' Sat Sabha had started free schools for upper-class students who studied English, Urdu, or Persian, Gurumukhi, drawing plans and surveying with chains and compass.¹⁴⁷ Khan Ahmad Khan, the Extra Assistant Commissioner, stated that 'the artisans do not stand in need of education for their occupation and low castes are totally excluded from primary education.'¹⁴⁸

In the Central Provinces, Govind Rao Krishna Rao, Sirdar of Timurni, Nimir, declared that 'Mahars, Dheds, Chamars have no taste at all for learning and are quite unwilling

to reap any fruit from education.’¹⁴⁹ J.W. MacDougall, Deputy Commissioner of Sambalpur, explained,

You get a village school opened, and the question of caste, though not recognised, is practically admitted. The lowest castes, such as Mahars, Mangs, and Ghosias, are excluded from our schools. Their introduction leads to the withdrawal of many scholars, and to escape the awkwardness of the position, the authorities have to yield to social prejudices. You cannot have separate schools for these lower castes because teachers of other and higher castes refuse such services. The education system requires the district administration to work through the village and town committees which is a great hindrance to the cause of education.¹⁵⁰

In the NWP and Oudh, an educational inspector, Lakshmi Shankar Misra, reported that

In a village inhabited chiefly by Brahmins, for instance, it appears anomalous to send a low caste schoolmaster. He can never be popular; no one will pay him respect; knowledge obtained from him will be considered trifling, and he will be a non-entity in the village community.¹⁵¹

Uday Pratap Singh, Raja of Bhinga in Awadh proposed limiting education to ‘the children of landlords’ and also added that ‘each student should have no more than five servants.’¹⁵² Sayyid Ikbal Ali, officiating the subordinate Judge of Gonda and a member of Muhammadan Oriental College Committee, at Aligarh since 1875, stated that education given in schools was not helpful to ‘children of persons carrying on ordinary professions and callings help their fathers or guardians in their daily work.’¹⁵³

Progressive Opinion on Access

Jotirao Phule, in his testimonial, addressed the British elitist policies which had led to such a deplorable condition,

Perhaps a part of the blame in bringing matters to this crisis may be justly laid to the credit of the government ... it is an admitted fact that the greater portion of the revenues of the Indian empire is derived from the *ryots*’ (peasants) labour from the sweat of his brow. The higher classes contribute little or nothing to the state’s exchequer ... They have educated many children of wealthy men and have been the means of advancing the worldly prospectus of some of their pupils very materially, but what contribution have these people made to the great work of regenerating their fellow-men? ... Have they in any way shown themselves anxious to ... repay philanthropy with patriotism? Upon what grounds is it asserted that the best way to advance the moral and intellectual welfare of the people is to raise the standard of instruction among the higher classes?¹⁵⁴

Phule called the government education policy ‘a glorious argument for the aristocracy.’ He stated that almost all the teachers in primary schools were Brahmins, and they discouraged the education of the lower classes. If the state withdrew from the field of education, it would ‘be injurious to the spread of education.’ The renowned Sanskrit scholar R.G. Bhandarkar stated that,

though the government statistics showed 47,342 boys in schools under the category of “cultivators”... I believe the number includes Brahmins and other higher castes, and the number of Sudra cultivators is very small. The number of sons of cultivators attending the government college is given as eight. But I do not remember having seen any Shudra cultivator among the students of the Elphinstone College.¹⁵⁵

Bhujangrao K. Huilgole, principal of the training college at Dharwar, stressed that Mahars and Mangs should be allowed to attend schools. He stated that only ‘very old Sawkars, old well-to-do people and priests have a decided antipathy to the education of the masses.’ He told the Commission that in Dharwar, ‘recently a graduate by the name Lele opened a school because some high caste boys objected to attending the government high school as low caste boys had been admitted into it.’¹⁵⁶ Koilas Chandra Dutt, the Sanskrit professor of a college at Jabalpur, stated that,

The attitude of the influential classes towards the extension of elementary knowledge to every class of society is far from being friendly. They consider that the son of an agriculturalist if kept in a school for 3–4 years, becomes afterwards totally unfit for out-door labour. Sometimes it happens, they say, that a shining and clever lad of a farmer is selected for the Normal School, where having completed his education when he returns to the village as a schoolmaster, the first thing he has to do is relinquish his paternal holding depend solely upon the pittance he gets by teaching. But they forget that often such a farmer is their tenant at will and consequently in no better position than an ordinary day labourer. To him, such a pittance is worth more than what he can get by being a bond slave to them for his whole life.¹⁵⁷

Wamanrao Kolhatkar, Head Master of Aided High School Nagpur, opposed the government’s argument that,

The middle class in England pay for education; hence the Indian middle class, too, should pay for it. If the history of our smart graduates and public men were enquired into, it would be found that they were, with very few exceptions, children of persons who had struggled hard to make a saving which obtained high education for their sons. ... it seems ludicrous to say that the government should make people pay for high education. The middle class in wealthy countries mean quite a different class of persons from what they mean in poor countries. How can you compare wealthy England with poverty-stricken India?¹⁵⁸

In Bengal, Mahendra Lal Sarkar stated that in Bengal, primary education was not based on a sound system for three reasons –firstly, children of all classes did not have access to them as the lowcastes like Mehters, Hadis, and Doms had been excluded. Secondly, it did not meet the requirements of those classes who cannot advance their children to higher education and finally, it did not form the basis of higher education. He also stressed that there was no encouragement for science teaching.¹⁵⁹

Aubinash Chander Banerjee, Additional Sub Judge at Agra, supported free education at the primary level.¹⁶⁰ Siva Prasad, an education inspector for 22 years and a writer of school textbooks, had opened an Anglo-vernacular school with a boarding house at Simla, stated

People do not send boys to boarding schools due to caste prejudice, cannot afford to send a cook for their sons. We must wait till the caste prejudice is worn out, or India produces men like Dr. Arnold of Rugby. So the search for instruction depends upon the degree of poverty, and poverty depends upon professions, which again mainly depends upon the divisions of caste.¹⁶¹

E.F. Webster, Chief Secretary to the Government of Madras reported, 'there are many schools where Pariah scholars may be seen side by side with Brahmins; there are many again, especially near the centres of religious thought, where Pariahs are excluded.'¹⁶²

The Indian Education Commission on the Education of Low-Caste and Its Recommendations

Night Schools

The Indian Education Commission found that Bombay had 3,919 children in 134 night-schools. Of them, 84 were maintained by the department, 48 were inspected, and two were aided. The schools were found in every division of the presidency and were popular with the Muslims and the Hindus. In addition, there were 223 nightclasses attached to day schools in the southern division which 4,962 children attended. At Belgaum, one of these classes was attended by 90 students, of whom 60 were Mahars. At Kaira, in Gujarat, the night school is exclusively attended by low-caste men, and the people of the town had frequently remonstrated against their education.

The schools were chiefly attended by men who had to labour in the day time, and the instruction was limited to the barest rudiments of reading and writing and a little ciphering. They have proved a great success, and more are demanded than the department can supply. The Commission recommended that night schools should be encouraged wherever practicable.¹⁶³

The Commission also found that Bombay had paid the greatest attention to the education of the low-caste children. In 1871, there were only 592 low-caste boys at school, and by 1881, there were 3,512, of whom 2,862 were in regular government day schools.¹⁶⁴ The Commission recommended giving special grants to the managers of aided institutions to admit low-caste children. It also recommended that

All primary schools wholly maintained at the cost of the school-boards and all primary schools that are aided from the same fund and are not registered as special schools, be understood to be open to all castes and classes of the community; and such a proportion between special and other primary schools be maintained in each school-district as to ensure a proportionate provision for the education of all classes, special aid being assignable, if necessary, on account of low-caste pupil.¹⁶⁵

The Commission recognised poverty among all castes, including Brahmins, but did not recommend free education for all poor children.

But as the caste descends in the social scale, the instances of poverty increase and the well to do are less able to render aid to the poorer members of their class. The best

remedy is perhaps to relax the rule which requires that education, even in schools which are not exactly supported but aided by the state, should not be gratuitous. We therefore recommend that in all Board schools, a certain proportion of pupils be admissible as free students on the grounds of poverty, and in the case of special schools established for the benefit of the poorer classes, a general or larger exemption from payment of fee be allowed under proper authority for special reasons.¹⁶⁶

The Commission recommended government assistance to 'schools and orphanages in which poor children are taught reading, writing, and counting, with or without manual work.'¹⁶⁷ The Commission accepted that many Indians admitted the educational rights of the low-castes, but in practice, several discriminations existed. During the investigation, the Commission came across 'a varying degree of untouchability practised by people' across India.

In Bengal, the low-caste boys freely attended indigenous schools. They sat on separate mats within the classroom, which the upper caste did not consider 'defiling', whereas in Calicut, the Nayars and Tiyars waylay the Cherumars as they went to schools and snatch books out of their hands. A Bombay witness relates how some promising low caste boys were recently sent from the regimental school at Dharwar to the government high school when a large number of Brahmin boys seceded at once from the high school.¹⁶⁸

In Delhi, there were several cases 'when Chamar students were admitted to schools resulted in empty benches.'¹⁶⁹ The Commission admitted that 'there are several instances of enlightened individuals and even of whole communities being favourable to the claims of low caste pupils.' Still, some argued that admitting low-caste children would lead to 'the risk of contagious diseases and immoral behaviour.'¹⁷⁰ Hunter countered the later argument by citing the example of Dharwar, where 'the boys from regimental school were clean and moral.' Hunter concluded that 'on the whole, there exists a deep-seated prejudice to the admission of low-caste boys into public schools, partly due to religious feeling and partly to fear of physical and moral contagion.'¹⁷¹

The Commission reiterated the earlier government's stand that 'no boy be refused admission to a government college or school merely on the ground of caste,' but 'we are fully alive to the fact that no principle, however sound, can be forced upon an unwilling society in defiance of their social and religious sentiments.' It also stated that 'if the low caste community seek an entrance into the cess school, their right must be firmly maintained, ... it is, however, undesirable to urge them to claim a right about which they are themselves indifferent.' The Commission recommended the establishment of separate schools for the low-caste children.¹⁷² One of the members of the Commission, K.T. Telang, in his 14-page Note of Dissent, criticised the Commission, besides other things, for neglecting the education of the low-caste children.¹⁷³

As a financial measure, the Commission recommended transferring primary schools into the hands of elected local bodies like the municipalities. The measure was adopted across India during 1885–1887. Now the elected Indian representatives entirely controlled the primary schools including access, curriculum, and appointments. How this system further penalised the Dalit children is well documented by Philip Constable. His micro study of Dapoli municipality in the Bombay Presidency shows how the elected representatives

effectively kept Dalit children out of the schools. In 1892, Dapoli Municipal President Vishnu Hari Barve, a friend of the nationalist leader Bal Gangadhar Tilak, refused to let Dalit children enter the classrooms of the Municipal Board School and made them sit on the veranda of the school. The Mahar and Chambar retired army officers took up the matter with the Director of Public Instruction, who directed Barve to allow the Dalit children inside the classroom in accordance with grant-in-aid rules. The municipality avoided the issue by stating that it would have to expand the classroom first in order to accommodate more children. It conveniently said at a later date that such expansions could not be made due to lack of funds and Dalit children remained outside the school system during the next couple of decades.¹⁷⁴

Spiritualisation of Caste system: Bal Gangadhar Tilak and Anne Besant 1880–1920

The political leadership that emerged in the 1880s and 1890s had a far-reaching effect on the education of low-caste children than the earlier leaders. Leaders like Syed Ahmad Khan, Syed Ameer Ali, and Peary Mohan Mukherjee were the most influential leaders who had direct access to the highest authority in the administration, but the newly emerging leadership had control over newspapers through which they could create and influence public opinion. They were also leading agitators against the British administration. Their anti-colonial rhetoric have been celebrated while their opposition to the entry of low-caste children into schools have been selectively ignored.

Bal Gangadhar Tilak (1856–1920) entered the public arena in January 1881 at the age of 24 by starting his weekly *The Mahratta* in English and *Kesari* in Marathi through the wealth inherited from his father, who was a Deputy Educational Officer, a landlord, and a moneylender.¹⁷⁵ At the very outset, he opposed two contemporary events – the Deccan Agriculturist's Relief Act of 1879, drafted by Mahadev Govind Ranade (1842–1901) and William Wedderburn (1838–1918), which prevented the confiscation of peasant's tools and land by moneylenders for non-payment of loans. This act was crucial as Western India had suffered debilitating famine in the 1870s.¹⁷⁶ He also defended the caste system in the name of 'cleanliness.' He called on 'the educated to do everything in his power to give a definite form to this unsettled state of things.' Tilak discussed 12 crucial points of criticism of the institution of caste by 'the reformers and those who held caste as an obstruction to national development' and declared that 'the Hindu religion owed its existence to the caste system.'¹⁷⁷

In the field of education, Tilak opposed teaching the 'Kunbi (peasant) children, reading, writing and rudiments of history, geography and mathematics' as they have no earthly use in practical life,' and these subjects did 'more harm than good to them.' Tilak asserted that the reformers, by giving modern education, weaned

A farmer's boy from the plough, the blacksmith's boy from the bellows and the cobbler's boy from his awl, ... you remove him from a sphere where he would have been contented happy and useful to those who depend upon him and teach him to be discontented with his lot and with the government.¹⁷⁸

Tilak suggested to the government to open technical schools in the villages or a group of villages to teach the 'most ordinary trades like those of a carpenter, blacksmith, mason and tailor.' Tilak called it a 'rational system of education ... befitting their rank and

station in life.' Tilak opposed the reformer's contention that public funds supported the municipal schools and should be open to all. He stated that public money means tax payer's money and only the taxpayers have the right to decide. Spending it on low-caste education was 'a sheer waste of money.'¹⁷⁹ Tilak declared that the government support for educating Dalit children was 'against the spirit of Queen's Proclamation, which guaranteed that the government would abstain from all interference with religious belief.'¹⁸⁰ He criticised 'the indiscreet officers for forcing the association of Mahar and Dhades on Brahmin boys.' Tilak also blamed the missionaries for setting up low-caste people to push their admission claim into schools.¹⁸¹

Tilak's attack on colonial education went beyond his opposition to the admission of lower castes into primary schools. He argued with the force for restricting higher education too. Ranade had been urging the government to simplify the university syllabus to reduce the burden on the students and enable the non-Brahmin students without a background in Sanskrit to enter the colleges. In 1881, Bombay University agreed and simplified the Sanskrit and Mathematics papers for the Matriculation and the B.A. examinations. It also decided to admit students who had not taken a classical language in matriculation. Tilak called it a 'tyranny' of British rule.¹⁸² Tilak, through his newspapers, led a vigorous campaign against the admission of non-Brahmins into schools and colleges. At the same time, his supporters who controlled the Municipalities, District Boards, and College Boards effectively enforced it.¹⁸³

When orthodox Hindu leaders like Peary Mohan Mukherjee, Radhakanta Deb, and Bal Gangadhar Tilak opposed the admission of 'low-caste' children, the fear of challenge to feudal order was a very temporal concern. Anne Besant (1847–1933), the Irish Theosophist and a leader of the Indian Home Rule Movement, gave the caste system spiritual sanctity. In the Hindu tradition, the caste system had only temporal validity. Caste rules and restrictions did not apply to the spiritual world. So those who gave up their responsibility to society and became *sanyasi* or mendicants had no caste. Even the most orthodox lawgiver, Manu, in his *Dharmasastra* stated that the caste system was meant to regulate the society and was not applicable to the spiritual domain where the souls have no caste distinction.¹⁸⁴

Besant completely disregard the Hindu philosophy, and propounded a 'Soul Theory of Caste' according to which the highest evolved soul was of Brahmin caste, followed by Kshatriya and Vysya souls, and the least evolved was Shudra.¹⁸⁵ Besant called the soul of a Brahmin as most refined as it came with several lifetimes of discipline and experience. She justified the caste system and opposed the admission of low-caste boys into schools.¹⁸⁶ When Gokhale introduced the Compulsory Education Bill in 1911, Besant opposed giving education free. She also suggested 'education common to all should be of very elementary' consisting of

Reading, writing, and singing religious hymns (*stotras* and *bhajans*), interspersed with some physical exercises; elements of arithmetic taught at first with objects, not with figures. Then a collection of objects found and brought by the children themselves, the objects of the countryside; flowers, leaves, grains, animals- whatever the district furnishes. For the elder children, little gardens, where they might learn to plant seeds, to care for plants. Work for wet days in making baskets, in learning to saw, to hammer, to make simple village stools and stands. Teaching of geography by making a map of the village in the sand, with its roads leading to other villages and towns, the place of the well, of a tank, of a stream and so on.¹⁸⁷

Besant insisted that elementary education for the masses should consist of 3–4 years, starting from the age of five to eight or nine years, in rudimentary buildings. After this stage,

The great mass of the labouring population should pass into the practical training necessary for the efficient discharge of the craft by which they are, in the future, to serve their country and to earn their own living, winning prosperity alike for India and for themselves. Secondary education is not for the boys and girls whose future lies in handicrafts, in agriculture, in domestic and small shop-assistant service, in factories, in the lowest ranks of the petty officials-policemen, soldiers, office peons, chowkidars, (security guards) and the like.¹⁸⁸

By advocating the inclusion of ‘sowing seeds, caring for plants, basket making, learning to saw, to hammer and to make village tools’ in the primary schools in the name of ‘practical training in the ancestral crafts,’ Besant strengthened the hands of the reactionaries in India who were opposing education for the lower classes.

By 1900, Tilak was so impressed with Besants’s spiritualisation of the caste system that he actively advocated her book *The Primer of Sanatan Dharma* as a compulsory textbook in schools and colleges.¹⁸⁹ Such texts inculcating hierarchy as fundamental to Hinduism was essential to keep the low-caste aspirations in check and control radical reformers like Gopal Krishna Gokhale and R.G. Bhandarkar and others who wanted to abolish the caste system. Gokhale had criticised the caste system as ‘absolutely monstrous that a class of human beings with bodies similar to our own, with brains that can think and with hearts that can feel, should be perpetually condemned to servitude and mental and moral degradation.’¹⁹⁰ Bhandarkar had criticised the Satara and Karad municipalities for opposing the admission of low-caste children into regular schools while making no efforts to start separate schools for them.¹⁹¹ Tilak declared that ‘secular education has led to such religious nihilism.’ He opposed Sanskrit poetry and Hindu philosophy taught in colleges and insisted that ‘much of the religious instruction should consist of dogma pure and simple,’ and anyone questioning it ‘will have to be caned into silence.’¹⁹²

Tilak also tried to find proof of the spiritual foundation for the caste system by giving a new commentary on the *Gita*.¹⁹³ He criticised Sankara, the eminent and revered eighth-century philosopher, for not correctly interpreting *Gita*.¹⁹⁴ He opposed Hindu lawgivers like Manu, Yagnavalkya, Parashara, and others for not making ‘the observation of caste rules necessary for spiritual salvation – *moksha*.’¹⁹⁵ He also interpreted the observance of caste-specific duties as ‘worldly responsibilities – *karma*’, which he emphasised as *lok-samgraha* or universal welfare.¹⁹⁶ Tilak wrote,

Therefore I have to mention here emphatically, that *loksamgraha* according to *Gita* means to give other people a living example of how one can perform desirelessly all the various activities which are allotted to one according to the arrangements of the four castes.¹⁹⁷

Tilak elevated the adherence to caste duties as necessary for universal welfare and spiritual salvation and called it a dynamic social philosophy.¹⁹⁸ By opposing the 4,000-year-old Hindu philosophical tradition and by declaring the observance of the caste system as necessary for spiritual salvation, Tilak angered many Sanskrit scholars of his day. They criticised his eulogising of violence which even the most orthodox lawgiver like

Manu had condemned. They called Tilak's interpretation 'absurd.'¹⁹⁹ In 1916, Tilak joined the Home Rule League Movement started by Besant. During this period, he once again insisted on a system of national education that taught 'the theory of karma' for making a good citizen and a fair amount of applied science to encourage self-sufficiency in the industrial field.²⁰⁰

The Government Policy on Low-Caste Education 1882–1947

By the 1880s, the Orientalists who actively upheld the societal hierarchies were long gone, and the new class of Indian Civil Service officers recruited in the 1850s and 1860s were at the helm of affairs. They actively promoted the education of the marginalised sections of society. Instead of the term low-caste, the government began calling the 'untouchable' castes Backward Classes or Depressed Classes. From 1892 onwards, it published a separate section on 'Backward Classes' in its *Quinquennial Reviews*. In 1887, 64.5 per cent of the children of the school-going age of Native Christians were in schools and for the Hindus and Muslims, it was 11.3 and 12.4, respectively.²⁰¹ During 1887–1892, there was a 36.6 per cent increase among the Native Christian students; for Hindus, the increase was 12.9 and for Muslims, 17.9 per cent.²⁰² In Madras, the term '*Panchama*' was introduced, and the term '*Pariah*' or outcaste was abandoned as it was derogatory. The category of 'Backward Classes' consisted of the 'Panchamas, the aboriginals or hill tribes of Ganjam, Vishakapattanam, Godavari districts, and the Mappila Muslims of Kerala.' Beilby Lawley Wenlock, the Governor of Madras (1891–1896), was the first to take a proactive stand and sanctioned in 1893 a series of eight proposals for encouraging education among the Backward Classes. It gave additional funds to schools and teacher training institutions with such children under the grant-in-aid and salary grant schemes. The District Boards and Municipalities were required to open special schools for these classes in large Panchama villages and suburbs where such schools did not exist and encourage night schools. It decided to give the government land free as sites for Panchama schools. For the backward classes, it reserved 19 government scholarships for boys and 15 for girls for collegiate education. At Madras, it opened a Training school for Panchama teachers. This increased the number of Panchama schools from 1,437 to 2,468, or 72 per cent, and students from 31,639 to 37,894, or 85 per cent. The number of Panchama boys rose from 20,970 to 34,327 and of girls from 1,961 to 3,018. These numbers do not include Indian Christians. Several special scholarships were instituted for tribal communities like Savara boys in Orissa, Lambadies in the Krishna District, Chenchus in Kurnool, Yenadis and Yerukulas in Nellore, Badagas, Kotas, and Todas in the Nilgiris, and Malayalis in Salem. During this period, the number of schools in Andhra and Orissa rose from 267 to 324 or by 21 per cent and the number of students in them increased from 6,701 to 8,337, or by 21 per cent. The total number of tribal students throughout the province rose from 821 to 3,299 for boys and from 34 to 74 for girls. The collector of Malabar visited the Lakshadweep islands and established schools there. The Assistant Collector of South Canara visited the islands attached to that district, appointed teachers, and procured textbooks for the existing schools.²⁰³ As a result of these policies, in 1896–1897, there were 40,801 Panchama students in schools. There was an increase in children of lower classes by 20 per cent and those of coolies by 58 per cent, artisans by 16 per cent, and landholders by 15 per cent. There were 104,985 Brahmin and 501,040 non-Brahmin students in all educational institutions. The Brahmin students were more in collegiate education.²⁰⁴

During the same period, the Bombay government reported that there were several schools for tribal children like Bhils and Kolis across Gujarat, and the District Board of Broach spent Rs. 1,000 on scholarships for the tribal children. However, there was public resistance to the admission of low-caste children. In the Kaira district, five large schools were closed, and huts and crops belonging to low castes were burnt.²⁰⁵ In Bengal, low-caste education received encouragement, and six low-caste children passed the matriculation examination in 1897. The tribal communities in Chota Nagpur, Bhagalpur, the South Lushai Hills, Birbhum, Bankura, and Mymensingh Districts and Orissa were given additional funds.²⁰⁶

During 1890–1907, the Madras, Bombay, and Bengal governments made several efforts to establish schools in tribal areas. The tribal groups were reluctant to take up education though they faced no resistance from upper castes. On the other hand, the low-caste children were keen to enter schools but faced opposition. Because of the combined efforts of the government officials, missionaries, and Hindu reformers, the Madras Presidency was far ahead of other provinces. In 1902, there were 44,150 Panchama boys, 8,328 Panchama girls in schools, and four Panchama boys in Arts colleges. In Bengal, there were seven students in university and 249 in secondary schools.²⁰⁷ In Bengal, certain castes were considered low in some districts, while in others, there were freely admitted to schools. So getting aggregate numbers is difficult. The education department in 1907 reported that there were 41,450 Hindu, 22,886 Muslim, and 2,799 Indian Christian low-caste children in schools.²⁰⁸

In 1908, the DPI of Punjab, J.C. Godley, noted that the 36 schools for the Depressed Classes had 844 boys with 640 Chamars, 44 sweepers, 49 other low castes, 103 native Christians, and eight Muslims. The Delhi district had 17 schools, Ambala and Gurgaon had nine each, and Karnal had one. There are no such schools in Hissar and Rohtak. Most of these schools were 'aided indigenous institutions maintained by the society for the propagation of Gospel or by the Baptist Church.' A school in Gurgaon had an industrial section attached to it. In addition to reading and writing, indigenous physical training – *desi kasarat* – formed part of the curriculum of all schools. In addition, 59 low-caste children were studying in ordinary schools where they were not allowed to mix with the high-caste children in the majority of cases. In the Hoshiarpur district, the low-caste boys studied in regular schools. In some cases, they were required to sit apart, but generally, they mixed with the other boys without any distinction. There was no public opposition, so their number rose from 20 to 96 in Hoshiarpur, 11 to 40 in Jullandhar, and 15 to 19 in Ludhiana. In Amritsar, there were no separate schools. Many low-caste Christian boys were reading in mission schools in Sialkot and Gurdaspur districts, while 105 low-caste children were in regular schools where they were not allowed to mix with the higher castes. In Lahore, four low-caste schools maintained by missionaries had 67 students. There were no low-caste schools in Montgomery and Simla districts, and 25 low-caste children were in regular schools 'without any objection being raised from Hindus and Muslims.' Rawalpindi had 16 aided indigenous schools with 203 low-caste boys maintained by the American Mission Society. Multan had five mission elementary schools with 164 boys and 92 boys in regular schools, with two of them in secondary school.²⁰⁹

In the Bombay Presidency, members of the Parthana Samaj, Vitthal Ramji Shinde (1873–1944), a Maratha, and Narayan Ganesh Chandavarkar (1855–1923), a Konkani Brahmin, established the Depressed Classes Mission in 1906. They campaigned tirelessly for the inclusion of Dalit children in schools. By 1912, four low-caste students were at the university and 15 in secondary schools. Across British India, during 1906–1912, the number

of Dalit students increased from 179,367 to 217,629, most of them were in Madras and Bengal. The government expenditure went up from 431,217 to 607,775 rupees. In the Bijapur District, the children of criminal tribes were admitted to ordinary schools and were given stipends. In Dharwar, a special school was set up for them, and scholarships, free books, slates, and clothing were provided.²¹⁰ In several places, the government established industrial schools that taught various skills like basket weaving, bamboo, and cane work.²¹¹

An increase in the number of Dalit children in schools did not mean an absence of segregation of Dalit students. During 1917–1922, the government reported that

In the Multan Division, boys of low castes such as Chamars, Musalis, and Sansis occasionally attend ordinary schools, but they are generally seated apart from the children of higher castes. Such segregation, however much to be deprecated, cannot seriously affect the children's education, but there can be little advantage except possibly in prestige gained by an Adi-Dravida child who, on admission to school, is seated outside the school building. It has been found necessary to prohibit this practice in Madras. In the Central Provinces also, a committee, which the government set up in 1921 to consider, amongst other things, the education of the depressed classes, has found it necessary to recommend equality of treatment for all castes admitted inside the school.²¹²

The government admitted that special schools for Dalit children were unsuccessful in many places as it was difficult to get teachers for them. In many places, these special schools had many upper-caste children. So the government preferred common schools where ever possible. The Madras Government issued successive orders in 1919, 1920, and 1922, which emphasised the necessity for the free admission of boys of the depressed classes to schools under public management. 'In the Lahore Division, the 47 low-caste schools contained 431 low-caste and 1,733 high-caste children.' In the United Provinces, the marked increase in attendance of low-caste boys in mixed schools was 'a significant indicator of a lessening prejudice among people.' The opposition or acceptance was not uniform. In the Fyzabad Division of the United Provinces, there was decided opposition, while in the Etawah district, the upper castes supported.²¹³ The Etawah district, under its Scottish Collector, had begun the process of inclusive modern education in the 1850s.²¹⁴ The education department officials found that

The prejudice against the admission of low-caste children into public schools is felt more strongly in towns than in rural areas. If compulsory education is to be introduced effectively in towns, it is clear that for some time to come municipal committees must be prepared to undertake the cost of providing separate schools for children belonging to the depressed classes.²¹⁵

The passing of the Compulsory Education Bills during 1916–1922 by the provinces also facilitated the admission of Dalit children. The resistance to these bills was as stiff as before. Peary Mohan Mukherjee, who had successfully stalled the introduction of mass education in the 1870s, wrote to the magistrate of Hooghly when the Compulsory Education Bill came up for discussion in Bengal in 1918 that the 'primary education should be confined to reading and writing and arithmetic and should not exceed two years. Only one book *shishubodh* should be used for two years. It contains the alphabet, easy lessons, arithmetic tables and moral lessons.' He also insisted that education should not 'encroach upon the time of the boys for work in their ancestral occupations nor give them ideas of an expensive

and higher plane of living.²¹⁶ However, the Indian reformers and the government successfully passed these bills and tried to implement the reforms.

During 1922–1927, the Commissioner of Labour and his Department in Madras established 783 special schools with a total strength of over 32,000 students. In addition, schools opened under the auspices of the Poor School Society; the Social Service League and the Depressed Classes Missions received aid from the education department. Of these special schools, 228 had buildings constructed for them during this period. A large number of new scholarships covering primary to university education were instituted for Dalit Students. In the Bombay Presidency, a significant step forward was taken when the government issued orders in 1922–1923

That no disability of any kind should be imposed on children of the depressed classes in any school conducted by a public authority and that no grant-in-aid would be given to privately managed schools which did not admit depressed class children.²¹⁷

The number of special schools for the depressed classes in the Bombay Presidency (excluding Sind) increased from 508 to 572, and their strength rose from 18,000 to nearly 21,000. However, the Bombay Municipality had closed its special schools for depressed classes as ‘the depressed class pupils are freely admitted into the ordinary schools.’ The Christian Missions, the Depressed Class Mission, the Servants of India Society, the Labour Unions, and the Antyaja Seva Mandal actively worked for the spread of education amongst the depressed classes. During 1922–1927, in Punjab, the government’s insistence on admitting Dalit students yielded good results. The number of Dalit students rose from just over 3,732 to 19,502, of which over 15,000 were attending ordinary schools. During this period, Bengal witnessed a considerable increase in the number of students from 96,552 to 344,179 (Table 3.2); and it was ‘stated that education has been spreading among the backward classes at a rate much faster than among other classes.’ In Bihar and Orissa, the number of special schools for the Dalits increased from 131 to 222, and their strength increased from 3,101 to 5,633, while the total number of students under instruction rose from 15,096 to 25,006. Special scholarships, fee remissions, and special inspecting staff under a limited number of local boards had been instrumental in this increase. The number of Dalit students reading at the secondary stage remained extremely low. In 1926, the government decided that no fees should be charged from Dalit students in any recognised school in the province. In Ajmer-Merwara, the Arya Samaj and Christian Missions maintained a number of schools for the Dalits. In Delhi, little difficulty was experienced in admitting Dalit students into ordinary schools.²¹⁸ In the United Provinces, the number of special schools under the management of district boards increased from 582 to 814, and their strength increased from nearly 39,873 to 90,816. At the same time, the number of depressed class pupils reading in regular primary schools for boys rose from 25,000 to 69,000.²¹⁹ The Hartog Committee observed that, between 1927 and 1932, the provinces witnessed a considerable increase in the enrolment of Dalit students. (Table 3.3)

Two policies have been suggested for meeting the educational needs of the depressed classes. In the view of some, their interests can best be safeguarded by policy extending the system of segregated schools and by providing separate supervising staffs for these schools. The other policy is to admit the children of depressed classes on equal terms into ordinary schools. The latter policy is the right one. The system of segregate schools tends necessarily to emphasise rather than to reduce the differences between the depressed classes and the other Hindu castes.²²⁰

Table 3.2 Dalit population and Dalit students

<i>Provinces</i>	<i>Dalit population in millions 1921</i>	<i>Dalit students 1922</i>	<i>Dalit students 1927</i>	<i>Percentage of increase of Dalit students</i>	<i>Percentage of increase of all students</i>	<i>Percentage of Dalits in schools</i>	<i>Percentage of the total population in schools</i>
Madras	6.5	157,113	228,511	45.4	39.8	3.5	5.8
Bombay	1.75	36,543	60,260	64.9	24.4	4.1	5.7
Bengal ^a	6.75	96,552	344,179	256.4	24.8	4.3	4.9
United Province	8.25	39,873	90,816	127.8	32.7	1.1	2.8
Punjab	1.70	3,732	19,502	422.5	96.5	1.1	5.2
Bihar and Orissa	1.00	15,096	25,006	65.6	39.6	0.9	3.1
Central Provinces	2.60	28,919	34,531	19.4	18.4	1.1	2.8

Source: Report of the Indian Statutory Commission, 218–219.

Note:

^a In Bengal, some of the castes not considered Dalit but quite low in the social hierarchy were included.

Table 3.3 Enrolment of depressed class students in all institutions

Province	1927	1932	Increase (+) or decrease (–)
Madras	228,511	338,578	+110,067
Bombay ^a	60,260	69,186	+8,926
Bengal	344,179	440,054	+95,875
United Province	94,669 ^b	125,965	+31,296
Punjab	19,502	34,664	+15,162
Bihar and Orissa	25,006	24,971	–35
Central Provinces	34,531	47,501	+12,970
Total	806,658	1,080,919	+274,261

Source: *Quinquennial Review*, 1927–32, 245.

Notes:

^a Sind not included

^b There is a difference in numbers printed in the *Report of the Indian Statutory Commission*, and the *Quinquennial Review*.

In 1930, the Bombay government appointed a committee to enquire into the condition of the depressed classes. It reaffirmed the government policy of equal treatment for all classes of children in publicly managed institutions. It recommended encouraging common schools instead of segregated schools, more frequent interchange of teachers in common and separate schools, and increasing the number of teachers of Backward Classes in primary schools. It asked the government to abandon the titles of ‘depressed classes and low caste schools’ and institute additional scholarships and relaxation of age limits in certain conditions. The government accepted these recommendations and carried them out. There was a mixed success. One educational inspector stated that ‘the alleged obstacle of religious bigotry has been practically removed;’ another stated that ‘no caste distinction in the matter of admissions has been observed.’ A third, however, stated that ‘efforts to remove disabilities are meeting with some success and old prejudices are rapidly dying out in large towns, but very slowly in villages.’ The government admitted that ‘a change in the attitude of the people to this matter can only come slowly and from within.’²²¹

Summing up the Debates

The history of access to schools during 1820–1947 shows India began with a relatively egalitarian system of indigenous vernacular schools. There were Dalit teachers and students in Bengal, Dalit students in Bihar, Madras Presidency, and the NWP. The Artisanal Caste students dominated in Bombay Presidency and other parts of India. Most teachers were non-Brahmins except in Telugu and Gujarati-speaking areas. Even in the field of Sanskrit education, except for the study of the *Vedas* and *Dharmasastras*, Non-Brahmins had access to other fields in Bengal, North Kerala, and NWP, while in Bombay and Tamil-speaking Madras Presidencies, it was limited to Brahmins. Though the Brahmins had ritualistic and legal knowledge, according to Sanskrit Scholar William Adam, most of them were as poor as Dalits. This was because the Hindu tradition forbade earning money through this knowledge, and they taught Sanskrit free of cost.

The Orientalists who needed the assistance of the scholars to translate the *Dharmasastras*, elevated these impoverished orthodox Brahmins as the leaders of the society, which they

were not. Manu was the most orthodox lawgiver, and the group of Brahmins who preserved and taught Manu's *Dharmasastra* were also the most orthodox sections of Brahmins. By privileging this group, the Orientalists undermined Sanskrit scholarship that existed among the progressive Brahmin and non-Brahmin castes. For instance, all castes, including Dalits, possessed and taught Sanskrit texts; the Orientalist-led Calcutta Sanskrit College admitted only Brahmins to all subjects and Baidyas for medical education. The rest of the population was filtered out. In the field of vernacular education, the Orientalists and the elite British officers privileged the landed gentry, who were upper castes. Though the colonial state adopted the indigenous schools and nurtured them, yet privileging students from 'respectable classes' weakened the inclusive character of these schools. These two policies had devastating consequences for Hindu society. The arrogant Brahmin teachers that Phule came across in the 1840s were not the traditional indigenous school teachers but those handpicked by the Elphinstone-Jervis team, trained and deployed to represent Orientalist ideology. The conflict between the Orientalists and Macaulay was not limited to the medium of instruction; it extended to the admission of children, irrespective of caste and class background, to modern schools and his defence of the right of Dalit students to be treated on par with others. Macaulay's refusal to recognise caste and class privileges was also one of the reasons for discrediting his name, first by the Orientalists and the elite British officers and later by Indian political leadership.

The upper caste landed gentry, which rarely took to education in the 1850s, began to consider it as their privilege and opposed the education for women and poor upper castes and lower castes by the 1870s. The opposition to mass education in Bengal and the resistance to the entry of non-Brahmins in the 1880s in many parts of India clearly demonstrate this trend. Though the progressive British liberals actively supported the education of all sections of society, the emerging new Indian elites vehemently opposed it. These leaders feared increasing social mobility and consequent challenge to their hegemony.²²² Syed Ahmad Khan's opposition to the entry of Dalit students and Peary Mohan Mukherjee and Syed Ameer Ali joining hands to oppose the proposal for Mass Education clearly demonstrate how the Hindu and Muslim landed gentry joined hands to deny education to poor and lower castes.

Though the British administration became proactive from the 1880s onwards, the rising tide of the freedom movement, whose leaders like Bal Gangadhar Tilak and Anne Besant actively campaigned against the admission of non-Brahmin and low-caste children. Besant's 'Soul Theory of Caste' and Tilak's 'Theory of Karma' did immense harm to the cause of inclusive education in India.

Notes

1 Laird, *Missionaries and Education*, 115.

2 *Adam's Report*, 228.

3 Heike Liebau, *Country Priests, Catechists, and School Masters*, 74–86.

4 Laird, *Missionaries and Education*, 49.

5 Board of Revenue, 5 August 1823, No. 51.

6 *Ibid.*

7 General Report of Public Instruction, NWP, 1847–48, LXXX–LXXXV.

8 General Department, 63 of 1824.

9 *Ibid.*

10 Education Department, Vol. I, Thomas Harvey Baber to William Chaplin, 22 August 1824.

11 General Department, No. 92 of 1825.

- 12 Board of Revenue to Governor Thomas Munro, 21 February 1825, Nos. 17–18.
- 13 Ibid.
- 14 *Adam's Report*, 228.
- 15 Ibid, 548.
- 16 Ibid, 550.
- 17 Ibid, 228–247.
- 18 Ibid, 228–247.
- 19 Laird, *Missionary and Education*, 168.
- 20 Reid, *Report on Indigenous Education in the NWP* 1851, 12–19.
- 21 Ibid, 82.
- 22 Ibid, 26.
- 23 General Report of Public Instruction, NWP, 1847–48, LXXX–LXXXV.
- 24 Laird, *Missionary and Education*, 51–52.
- 25 Anindita Ghosh, 'An Uncertain "Coming of the Book": Early Print Cultures in Colonial India,' 53.
- 26 Ibid, 32.
- 27 Laird, *Missionary and Education*, 115–117.
- 28 George Howells, *The Story of Serampore and its College*, 19.
- 29 *Adam's Report*, 64–65.
- 30 Ibid, 114–115.
- 31 *Appendix to the Report 1832*, Minute by Minto, 6 March 1811, 325–326.
- 32 GCPIC, Vol. 63, Letter from Hawkins, Senior Judge of Patna to the Committee for Superintending the Hindu College at Tirhut, 10 April 1811, Holt Mackenzie to the Committee for Superintending the Hindu College at Tirhut, 24 January 1817.
- 33 *Appendix to the Report, 1832*, 329–331.
- 34 *Board Collections*, No. 19265, Letter from the Court of Directors, 28 October 1814.
- 35 Sharp, *Selections from Educational Records*, Minute by Hastings (Moir), 2 October 1815, 24–29.
- 36 *Appendix to Report 1832*, Letters to the Court of Directors, 30 July 1819 and 16 March 1821 quoted in Despatch from the Court of Directors, 18 February 1824, 331.
- 37 Sharp, *Selections from Educational Records*, Note by Holt Mackenzie, 17 July 1823, 57.
- 38 Ibid, Letter from GCPI to the Governor General, 6 October 1823, 87.
- 39 Sirkin and Sirkin, 'The Battle of Indian Education,' 411–414, *GCPIC Proceedings*, Vol. V, GCPI to Governor-General, undated.
- 40 *GCPI Proceedings*, Vol. II, H.T. Prinsep's amendment to Proceedings regarding the Agra College, 11 April 1834.
- 41 General Department, No. 63 of 1824.
- 42 General Department, No. 1 of 1825, W. A. Jones to David Greenhill, 17 February 1825.
- 43 General Department, No. 10, 163 of 1828, Minute by Elphinstone, 10 April 1825.
- 44 Education Department, Vol. I, 1825, Minute by Elphinstone, 13 December 1823.
- 45 *Board Collections*, No. 21357, Public letter from Bombay 11 August 1824, extensively quotes Elphinstone's Education Minutes but does not mention date.
- 46 Hiroyuki Kotani, *Western India in Transition*, 89–91.
- 47 General Department, No. 13 of 1824, Note by T. B. Jervis.
- 48 General Department, 63 of 1824, T.B. Jervis to George Jervis, 8 October 1824.
- 49 Ibid, Minute by Elphinstone, 15 June 1824.
- 50 Rao, *Beyond Macaulay*, 99–114, 197–203.
- 51 *Bombay Education Consultations*, 1826, George Jervis to Government, 31 May 1826.
- 52 General Department, 163 of 1828, Education Minute by Elphinstone, 10 April 1825.
- 53 Education Department, Vol. II 1826, Jervis to Farish, 6 June 1826.
- 54 General Department, 92 of 1825, Minute by Elphinstone, 15 April 1825, Public Notice, 20 April 1825.
- 55 Ibid, 163 of 1828, Minute by Elphinstone, 10 April 1825 (second minute of the day).
- 56 General Department, 92 of 1825, Jervis to Farish, 22 February 1826.
- 57 Education Department, Vol II, Minute by Elphinstone, 21 June 1826.
- 58 For Francis Warden – Elphinstone debate, see, *Beyond Macaulay*, 95–104.
- 59 General Department, 24A of 1843, Report of the Board of Education.

- 60 General Department, 183 of 1829.
- 61 For the entire process of the establishment of Elphinstone College see, Rao, *Beyond Macaulay*, 109–114.
- 62 Dobbin, *Urban Leadership in Western India*, 31.
- 63 Report of the Board of Education for the years 1840, 1841, 77–81.
- 64 *Board Collections*, No. 79940, Minute by James Farish, 16 March 1839.
- 65 *Board Collections*, No. 79941, Farish to the COD, 27 August 1840.
- 66 General Department, 29 of 1850, Minutes by Jervis, 9 May 1848 and 16 March 1846.
- 67 For Jervis–Perry debate see, Rao, *Beyond Macaulay*, 197–203.
- 68 For a detailed discussion of the Payment by Result, see the chapter on Primary Education in this book.
- 69 Stuart Blackburn, *Print, Folklore and Nationalism in Colonial South India*, 85–95. Later, Subbaraya Mutaliar published the grammar with his own funds and sent a copy to the EIC head office in London for which he received a gold snuff box as a gift, yet the government refused to print or promote his book as late as 1834. Also see, Trautmann, *Languages and Nations: The Dravidian Proof in Colonial Madras*.
- 70 GCPI Correspondence, Vol. 3, No. 20, 1816, Letter from College Board to the Governor John Abercromby, 23 January 1814. Blackburn, *Print, Folklore and Nationalism*, 72.
- 71 Ibid, Additional Rules for the College of Fort St. George.
- 72 *Appendix to Report 1832*, Minute by Thomas Munro, (n.d.) January 1825, 356–357.
- 73 *Public Consultations, Report of the Board of Public Instruction*, 12 October 1832, No. 10.
- 74 *Appendix to Report 1832*, Public letter from Madras, 16 April 1828, 360–363, In the margin, it is mentioned as the ‘Minute of Sir Thomas Munro 16 April 1828.’ This is inaccurate. Munro died on 6 July 1827 and the paragraph 5 of this letter refers to him in third person. So either Governor Lushington was trying to pass off his obscurantist educational ideas as that of famous Munro, or it was a genuine clerical error, hard to tell.
- 75 *Public Consultations*, Nos. 24–25, Rowlandson the Secretary to the Board for the College and Public Instruction to the Chief Secretary, 21 December 1833. Education of a Pariah, Raman, *Document Raj*, 86–87.
- 76 *Board Consultations*, No. 55048, Rowlandson Secretary to the Board of the College and Public Instruction to the Court of Directors, 15 November 1832, *Board Collections*, No. 79197, Letter 30 December 1834, *Public Consultations*, Nos. 15–16, Report of the College Board on the State of Native Education, 8 February 1833.
- 77 Board Collection, No. 79199, Public address to the Governor of Madras, 11 November 1839, signed by 70,000 persons.
- 78 For complete details of manipulation see Rao, *Beyond Macaulay*, 137–143.
- 79 Finstein, ‘A Modern Examination of Macaulay’s Case for the Civil Emancipation of the Jews,’ 39–59, Masani, *Macaulay*, 124.
- 80 Speech by Charles Grant on East India Bill, *House of Commons Hansard*, 15 July 1833, Vol. 19, 662, Ehrlich, *The Crisis of Liberal Reform in India*, 2030.
- 81 Catherine Hall, ‘Macaulay’s Nation,’ 515.
- 82 Woodrow, *Macaulay’s Minutes on Education*, Minutes, 26 February 1836, 24 March 1837, 2 August 1837, 53–55.
- 83 GCPIC, Vol. 19, Samuel Davis, Secretary to Patna School to Sutherland, 13 November 1835.
- 84 Woodrow, *Macaulay’s Minutes on Education*, Minutes dated 23 November 1836, 11 February 1836, 28 December 1837, 7 May 1836, 43–68.
- 85 Ibid, Minute by Macaulay, 25 November 1836, 66.
- 86 GCPIC Barkley Duncan to the College Committee, 28 September 1836, Results of the Agra College.
- 87 Woodrow, *Macaulay’s Minutes on Education*, Minute 31 March 1837, 67, GCPIC, Vol. 11, On the Advantages of Education, Balmokund, January 1837.
- 88 GCPIC, 22 February 1837, Vol. 11, List of Those Considered for Employment.
- 89 Ibid, Barkley Duncan to GCPI 8 March 1837.
- 90 GCPIC, Vol. 19, Minute by A. Trotter, Patna School, 23 February 1838.
- 91 *Report of Public Instruction in the NWP 1843-44*, A Note on Education by George Russell Clerk, 6–8.
- 92 For details of each one of Macaulay’s high schools, their strength, and curriculum, and how they were closed down see Rao, *Beyond Macaulay*, 186–193.

- 93 *Report of the Board of Education 1850*, Letter from the Governor of Bombay to the Board of Education, 24 April 1850, 13.
- 94 Ibid, 11.
- 95 Ibid.
- 96 Ibid.
- 97 Ibid, 15.
- 98 *Returns to the House of Commons 1859*, Vol. III, Valavekar to Falkland, 16 December 1853, 51–52, Bombay government to the Society for Promoting the Education of Mahars and Mangs, Poona, 26 May 1855, 59. For details of local support to Phule's schools, and the attitude of the bureaucracy, see Rao, *Beyond Macaulay*, 210–211.
- 99 *Returns to the House of Commons 1859*, Vol. III, Petition by Erloo, son of Narayan, dated 18 June 1856, 263. Other official documents mention the boy's name as Eitoo bin Narayen, or Eitoobur Narrayen.
- 100 Ibid, DPI's letters dated 13 June 1856, 10 July 1856, 264–265.
- 101 Ibid, Bombay Government to DPI, dated 1 August 1856, 265.
- 102 Education, No. 3, To the Court of Directors of the East India Company from the Governor General in Council dated 20 May 1857.
- 103 Education, 2 July 1858, No. 5, Education, 9 July 1858, No. 1.
- 104 *Report of the DPI*, Bombay, 1856–1857, 93–94.
- 105 Ibid, 94.
- 106 *Report on Public Instruction for 1854-55*, 13–14.
- 107 Education, 5 February 1858, 9–12, Minute by F.J. Halliday, 20 July 1857.
- 108 Education, 9 July 1858, No. 1.
- 109 *Provisional Reports on Education 1894-95*, *Madras Report*, No. 23, 183–199.
- 110 Arthur Howell's Note on the State of Education in India, Education, 31 October 1868, 8-9 (B) 203.
- 111 Education, No. 58 of 1879, Report by K.M. Chatfield DPI Bombay, 14 March 1879, Report by H. B. Keskar, dated 14 February 1879, the attached list does not appear in the file.
- 112 Education, 15 October 1873, A, Nos. 20–21.
- 113 Education, 8 January 1870, No. 17, Admission of Low Caste Pupils in the Berar Schools, R.S. Sinclair, DPI Berar to W. Tweedie First Assistant Resident at Hyderabad, 3 August 1869.
- 114 Ibid, C. Woodhouse, Assistant Commissioner, Khamgaon to R.S. Sinclair DPI dated 26 June 1869.
- 115 Ibid, J.B. Peile, DPI Bombay to R.S. Sanclair dated 29 July 1869.
- 116 Ibid.
- 117 Ibid.
- 118 *Education Proceedings 1870*, 1523–1527, Opposition to the Admission of Dhed Boys into School.
- 119 Ibid.
- 120 Education, 1875, No. 31.
- 121 *Quinquennial Review 1892-97*, 357.
- 122 Education, 1 January 1870, 1-10 A.
- 123 Education, 15 October 1873, A, Nos. 20–21, Syud Ahmad Khan Bahadoor, Secretary M.A.O.C Committee, Benaras to C.A. Elliott Secretary to the Government of North-Western Province, 5 September 1872.
- 124 Ibid.
- 125 Ibid. For Syed Ahmad Khan's complete statement see, Rao, 'Colonial State as New Manu: Explorations in Educational Policies in Relation to Dalit and Low Caste Education in the Nineteenth Century India,' 84–107.
- 126 *Education Proceedings 1879*, 145–147.
- 127 *Adam's Report*, 454–495.
- 128 Education, 1 January 1870, 1-10 A, R.B. Chapman to the Government of Bengal, 3 June 1868.
- 129 Mukherjee, *Selections from the Writings and Speeches of the Late Raja Peary Mohan Mukherjee*, 31–34.
- 130 Ibid.
- 131 Ibid, 98–99.

- 132 *Bengal Provincial Committee Report*, 330–335.
- 133 *Ibid*, 331.
- 134 *Ibid*, 332.
- 135 *Ibid*, 330–331.
- 136 Syed Razi Wasti, ed., *Memoirs and Other Writings of Syed Ameer Ali*, 5–6.
- 137 *Report by the Bengal Provincial Committee*, 217–222.
- 138 *Ibid*, 223.
- 139 *Report by the Madras Provincial Committee*, 17.
- 140 *Ibid*, 170–192.
- 141 *Ibid*, 170–192, Charrier had also served as the Municipal Commissioner of Madras.
- 142 *Ibid*, 290.
- 143 *Ibid*, 292.
- 144 *Report by the Punjab Provincial Committee*, 505.
- 145 *Ibid*, 166.
- 146 *Ibid*, 516–517.
- 147 *Ibid*, 486.
- 148 *Ibid*, 123.
- 149 *Report by the Provincial Committee of Central Provinces*, 208.
- 150 *Ibid*, 236.
- 151 *Report by the NWP Provincial Committee*, 250.
- 152 *Ibid*, 152.
- 153 *Ibid*, 221.
- 154 *Ibid*, 140–45.
- 155 *Ibid*, 261–64, 271.
- 156 *Ibid*, 335–339.
- 157 *Ibid*, 183.
- 158 *Ibid*, 270.
- 159 *Report by the Provincial Committee of Bengal*, 363, 366–367.
- 160 *Ibid*, 160.
- 161 *Report by the Provincial Committee of NWP and Oudh*, 314.
- 162 *Education, Proceedings 1884*, 615.
- 163 *Report of the Indian Education Commission*, 146–147.
- 164 *Ibid*, 149.
- 165 *Ibid*.
- 166 *Ibid*, 149–150.
- 167 *Ibid*, 149–150.
- 168 *Report of the Indian Education Commission*, 514.
- 169 *Ibid*, 515.
- 170 *Ibid*, 514.
- 171 *Ibid*, 515.
- 172 *Ibid*, 516–517.
- 173 *Ibid*, 606–619.
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- 175 Rao, *Foundations of Tilak’s Nationalism*.
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- 177 *The Mahratta*, 26 March 1881, 2, *The Mahratta*, 10 July 1881, 1, The Prospects of Hindu Caste.
- 178 *The Mahratta*, 15 May 1881, 3–4, Our System of Education –A Defect and a Cure.
- 179 *Ibid*, 3.
- 180 *The Mahratta*, 26 March 1882, 5–6, Admission of Mahar Boys into Government Schools.
- 181 *The Mahratta*, 20 September 1885, 1, Independent Power of Municipalities in Respect of Public Education.
- 182 *The Mahratta*, 7 August 1881, 1 Our University I, *The Mahratta*, 14 August 1881, 1 Our University II.
- 183 For details see Constable, ‘Sitting on the School Verandah.’
- 184 See George Buhler, *The Laws of Manu*.

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- 186 Ibid.
- 187 Ibid, 106–107.
- 188 Ibid, 107.
- 189 *The Mahratta*, 5 July 1903, 318, Religious Education in Schools and Colleges.
- 190 B.R. Nanda, *Gokhale, Gandhi and the Nehrus*, 46.
- 191 *The Mahratta*, 25 September 1904, 461–462, The Hon. Bhandarkar's Speech.
- 192 *The Mahratta*, 3 July 1904, 313, Religion Education Suggestion towards a Practical Scheme, Editorial.
- 193 B.G. Tilak, *Srimad Bhagavadgita Rahasya*, 2.
- 194 Ibid, 24. Adi Sankara founder of a monastic tradition which exists even to this day lived in eighth century CE.
- 195 Ibid, 658.
- 196 Ibid, 659 and 927.
- 197 Ibid, 462.
- 198 Ibid, 927.
- 199 See, Aurobindo, *Essays on Gita*, 7, 28, G.V. Saroja, *Tilak and Sankara on the Gita*, 131–79.
- 200 *The Mahratta*, 14 April 1918, 178, *The Mahratta*, 29 March 1914, 97, What is the Ultimate Authority in Politics and Ethics? *The Mahratta*, 26 August 1917, 407, Education for Citizenship.
- 201 *Quinquennial Review* 1882-87, 100.
- 202 *Quinquennial Review* 1887-92, 18.
- 203 *Quinquennial Review* 1892-97, 352–355.
- 204 Ibid, 26.
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- 215 *Quinquennial Review*, 1917-22, 208.
- 216 Mukherjee, *Selections from the Writings and Speeches*, 202–204.
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